

Controller Design for Flapping Flight

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July 2, 2026

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1 Introduction

We propose a control strategy for flapping flight.

2 Model Description

2.1 Geometry and Aerodynamic Force

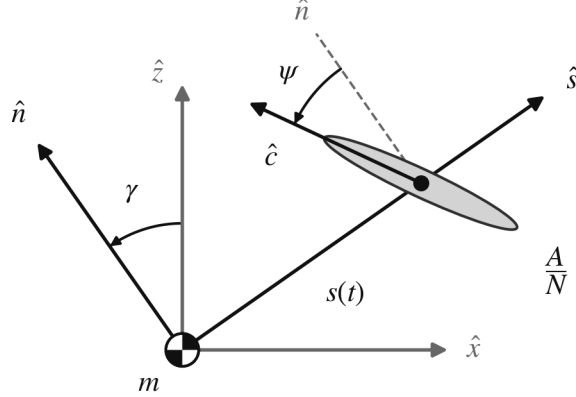


Figure 1: Model geometry. The stroke basis $(\hat{s}, \hat{n})$ is obtained by rotating the fixed frame basis $(\hat{x}, \hat{z})$ by the stroke plane angle γ . The lumped wing sits at position $s(t) \hat{s}$ relative to the point mass body, with chord direction $\hat{c}$ at pitch angle ψ from the stroke plane normal $\hat{n}$. For simplicity, only one lumped wing is drawn.

The flapping flight dynamics model consists of a point mass subjected to its own weight $m\vec{g}$ and to the aerodynamic force $\vec{F}$ from N wing pairs. The point mass is free to move in the (x, z) plane, with the spatial direction $\hat{z}$ such that $\vec{g} = -g\hat{z}$, and $\hat{x}$ such that $(\hat{x}, \hat{z})$ forms a direct orthonormal basis. The body position is $\vec{x} = x\hat{x} + z\hat{z}$ and the body velocity is $\vec{u} = \dot{x}\hat{x} + \dot{z}\hat{z}$. The total wing area is A , and both wings of each pair are lumped into a single, massless surface with area A/N . We will refer to these surfaces as *lumped wings*, keeping in mind they each represent *both* wings of a left-right pair. The aerodynamic properties of a lumped wing are represented by the quasi-steady model of [1, 2]:

$$C_L(\alpha) = C_{L,0} \sin 2\alpha \quad (1)$$

$$C_D(\alpha) = C_{D,0} \cos^2 \alpha + C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} \sin^2 \alpha \quad (2)$$

where α is the angle of attack, and the parameter values are $C_{L,0} = 1.5$, $C_{D,0} = 0.1$, and $C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} = 2.0$. The model neglects any aerodynamic interaction between lumped wings. To express the lumped wing kinematics and aerodynamic force $\vec{F}$, it is convenient to introduce the stroke basis $(\hat{s}, \hat{n})$, obtained by rotating the fixed frame basis $(\hat{x}, \hat{z})$ by the *stroke plane angle* γ . That is

$$\hat{s} = \cos \gamma \hat{x} + \sin \gamma \hat{z} \quad (3)$$

$$\hat{n} = -\sin \gamma \hat{x} + \cos \gamma \hat{z} \quad (4)$$

Each lumped wing translates along the stroke axis $\hat{s}$, and $\hat{n}$ represents the stroke plane normal. The lumped wing position relative to the point mass body is $\vec{s} = s(t)\hat{s}$, where $s(t)$ is the prescribed flapping coordinate. Because the wing is instantaneously at a distance $|s(t)|$ from the body, the aerodynamic force acts on the

body via a moment arm $|s(t)|$. However, in the present point mass model, there is no rotational degree of freedom, and the force is effectively considered to act through the center of mass.

Supposing γ stays constant during the wing stroke, the wing velocity relative to the body is $\vec{s} = \dot{s}(t)\hat{s}$. With the body velocity in the fixed frame (relative to still air) $\vec{u}$, the wing velocity relative to the air is $\vec{v} = \vec{s} + \vec{u}$. The aerodynamic force for wing pair i is given below (note the subscript i is omitted from quantities on the right-hand side for tidiness)

$$\vec{F}_i = \frac{1}{2}\rho \frac{A}{N} |\vec{v}|^2 [C_L(\alpha)\hat{\ell} + C_D(\alpha)\hat{d}] \quad (5)$$

where ρ is the air density and the drag direction vector $\hat{d}$ is defined as

$$\hat{d} = -\hat{v} = -\frac{\vec{v}}{|\vec{v}|} \quad (6)$$

and the lift direction vector $\hat{\ell}$ is defined as

$$\hat{\ell} = -\hat{d}^\perp \quad (7)$$

where $\cdot^\perp$ denotes counterclockwise rotation by $\pi/2$. As a result, $(\hat{\ell}, \hat{d})$ forms a direct orthonormal basis. To express the angle of attack α , it is convenient to define the chord direction vector $\hat{c}$, pointing from the trailing edge to the leading edge. Let $\psi(t)$ be the wing pitch angle, relative to the stroke plane normal $\hat{n}$. The chord direction vector is

$$\hat{c} = -\sin\psi\hat{s} + \cos\psi\hat{n} \quad (8)$$

The geometry introduced thus far is illustrated in [Figure 1](#).

2.2 Angle of Attack and Aerodynamic Coefficients

The angle of attack α can be defined here as the signed angle from the velocity direction vector $\hat{v}$ to the chord direction vector $\hat{c}$. We show below that this definition is consistent with the definition of the lift direction vector $\hat{\ell}$, giving the correct sign for lift. With this definition,

$$\cos\alpha = \hat{v} \cdot \hat{c} \quad (9)$$

$$\sin\alpha = \hat{v} \times \hat{c} \quad (10)$$

where $\hat{v} = \vec{v}/|\vec{v}|$ and $\times$ denotes the 2D cross product, defined as $\vec{a} \times \vec{b} = a_1b_2 - a_2b_1$. The velocity composition, the angle of attack, and the resulting lift and drag are illustrated in [Figure 2](#). $C_L(\alpha)$ can be rewritten as a function of $\cos\alpha$ and $\sin\alpha$ only; indeed,

$$\begin{aligned} C_L(\alpha) &= C_{L,0} \sin 2\alpha \\ &= 2C_{L,0} \sin\alpha \cos\alpha \end{aligned} \quad (11)$$

C_L and C_D can then be expressed with simple vector math as follows

$$C_L = 2C_{L,0}(\hat{v} \cdot \hat{c})(\hat{v} \times \hat{c}) \quad (12)$$

$$C_D = C_{D,0}(\hat{v} \cdot \hat{c})^2 + C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}}(\hat{v} \times \hat{c})^2 \quad (13)$$

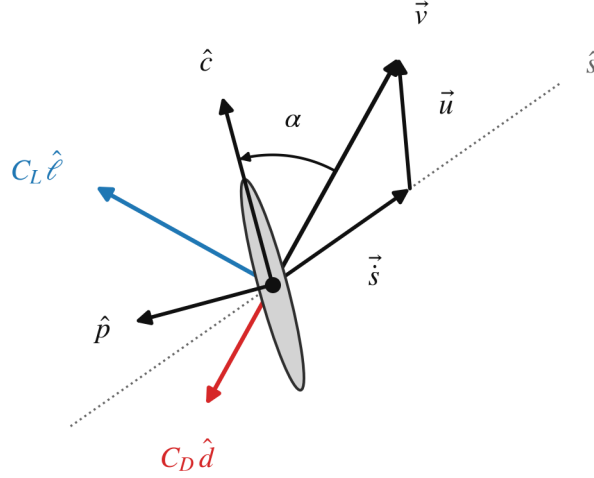


Figure 2: Lumped wing velocity triangle and aerodynamic force. The wing velocity relative to the air, $\vec{v} = \vec{s} + \vec{u}$, composes the flapping velocity $\vec{s} = s \hat{s}$ (along the stroke axis, dotted) with the body velocity $\vec{u}$. The angle of attack α is the signed angle from $\hat{v}$ to the chord direction $\hat{c}$, with $\hat{p} = \hat{c}^\perp$ the chord-normal direction, and the lift and drag contributions are drawn along $\hat{\ell}$ and $\hat{d}$ with lengths proportional to C_L and C_D (here $0 < \alpha < \frac{\pi}{2}$, so $C_L > 0$).

Introducing the chord-normal direction $\hat{p} = \hat{c}^\perp$ and the wing velocity components along and normal to the chord, $v_c = \vec{v} \cdot \hat{c}$ and $v_p = \vec{v} \cdot \hat{p}$, we have $\hat{v} \cdot \hat{c} = v_c / |\vec{v}|$, $\hat{v} \times \hat{c} = -v_p / |\vec{v}|$, and $|\vec{v}|^2 = v_c^2 + v_p^2$, so the coefficients expand to the scalar form

$$C_L = -2C_{L,0} \frac{v_c v_p}{v_c^2 + v_p^2} \quad (14)$$

$$C_D = \frac{C_{D,0} v_c^2 + C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} v_p^2}{v_c^2 + v_p^2} \quad (15)$$

This treatment of C_L is the same as that of [3], but with the opposite sign convention, α being defined from $\hat{c}$ to $\hat{v}$ in that work, whereas it is defined from $\hat{v}$ to $\hat{c}$ here. The lift and drag directions resulting from the above expressions are checked for correctness in all four quadrants of the angle of attack in Figure 3. Because $\hat{\ell}$ and $\hat{d}$ are constructed from $\hat{v}$ alone, the wing attitude enters only through C_L and C_D , so it suffices to check the coefficient signs quadrant by quadrant. Naturally, drag is positive along $\hat{d}$ for every α . The sign of C_L is that of $-v_c v_p$, which is that of $\sin 2\alpha$: positive in quadrants I and III, negative in II and IV, as drawn.

2.3 Prescribed Wing Kinematics

Wing motion is prescribed by the flapping coordinate $s(t)$ and the pitch angle $\psi(t)$. Flapping motion for each lumped wing is taken to be sinusoidal:

$$s(t) = s_0 \cos(\omega t + \phi) \quad (16)$$

where s_0 and ω are set parameters for all wing pairs, and ϕ is a phase parameter specific to a given wing pair, allowing for out-of-phase flapping of distinct wing pairs. For pitch, we consider two different kinematics. The first is sinusoidal:

$$\psi(t) = \psi_0 + \psi_1 \cos(\omega t + \phi - \delta_0) \quad (17)$$

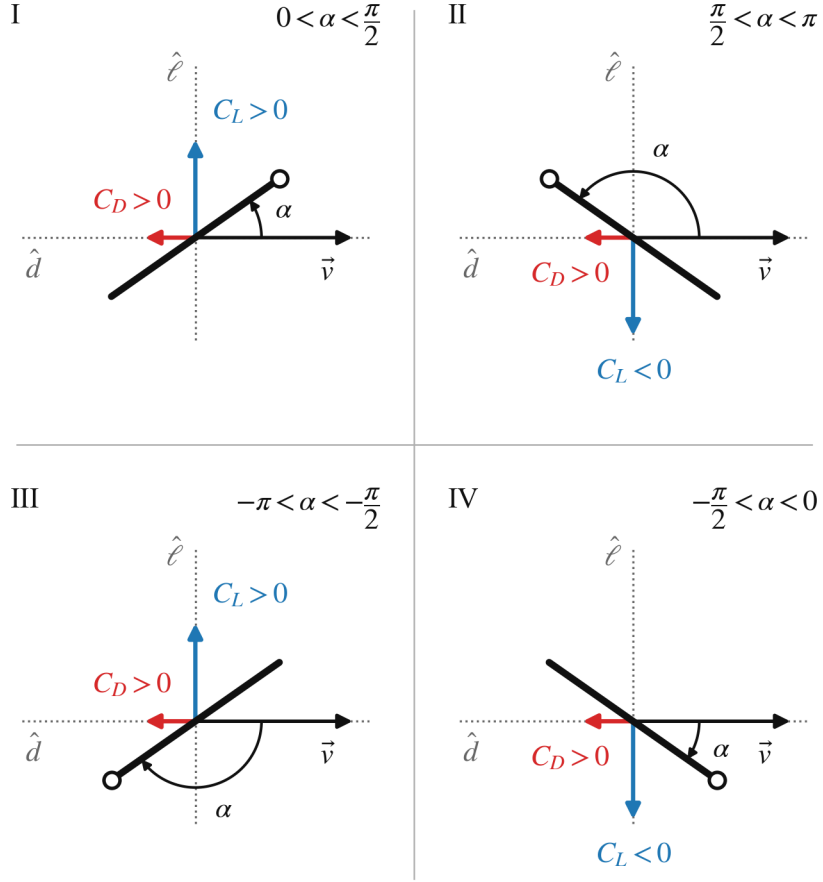


Figure 3: Lift and drag directions in the four quadrants of the angle of attack α , measured from the wing velocity direction $\hat{v}$ to the chord direction $\hat{c}$. Panels are labeled by quadrant (I–IV). Drag ($C_D > 0$) always opposes the wing velocity along $\hat{d}$, while the sign of C_L orients lift along $\pm \hat{\ell}$. The hollow circle marks the wing leading edge (the $\hat{c}$ end of the chord).

where ψ_0 (mean pitch), ψ_1 (pitch amplitude), and δ_0 (pitch phase lead) are set parameters for all wing pairs. The second kinematics law is simpler: through each half of the wing stroke, the wing pitch remains constant. The half-stroke along $-\hat{s}$ corresponds to $\omega t + \phi \in [0, \pi[\pmod{2\pi}$, and the half-stroke along $+\hat{s}$ to $\omega t + \phi \in [\pi, 2\pi[\pmod{2\pi}$. The simplified pitch kinematics are, then,

$$\psi(t) = \begin{cases} \psi_0 + \psi_1 & \text{if } \omega t + \phi \in [0, \pi[\pmod{2\pi} \\ \psi_0 - \psi_1 & \text{if } \omega t + \phi \in [\pi, 2\pi[\pmod{2\pi} \end{cases} \quad (18)$$

This can be considered an approximation of the sinusoidal law with $\delta_0 = \frac{\pi}{2}$. Both pitch kinematics laws are illustrated in Figure 4. As the figure makes apparent, $\delta_0 = \frac{\pi}{2}$ keeps the leading edge oriented into the wing motion throughout the cycle, with pitch extremes at mid-stroke and $\psi = \psi_0$ at stroke reversal. $\delta_0 = -\frac{\pi}{2}$ produces the opposite, adverse orientation, while $\delta_0 = 0$ and π place the pitch extremes at the reversals.

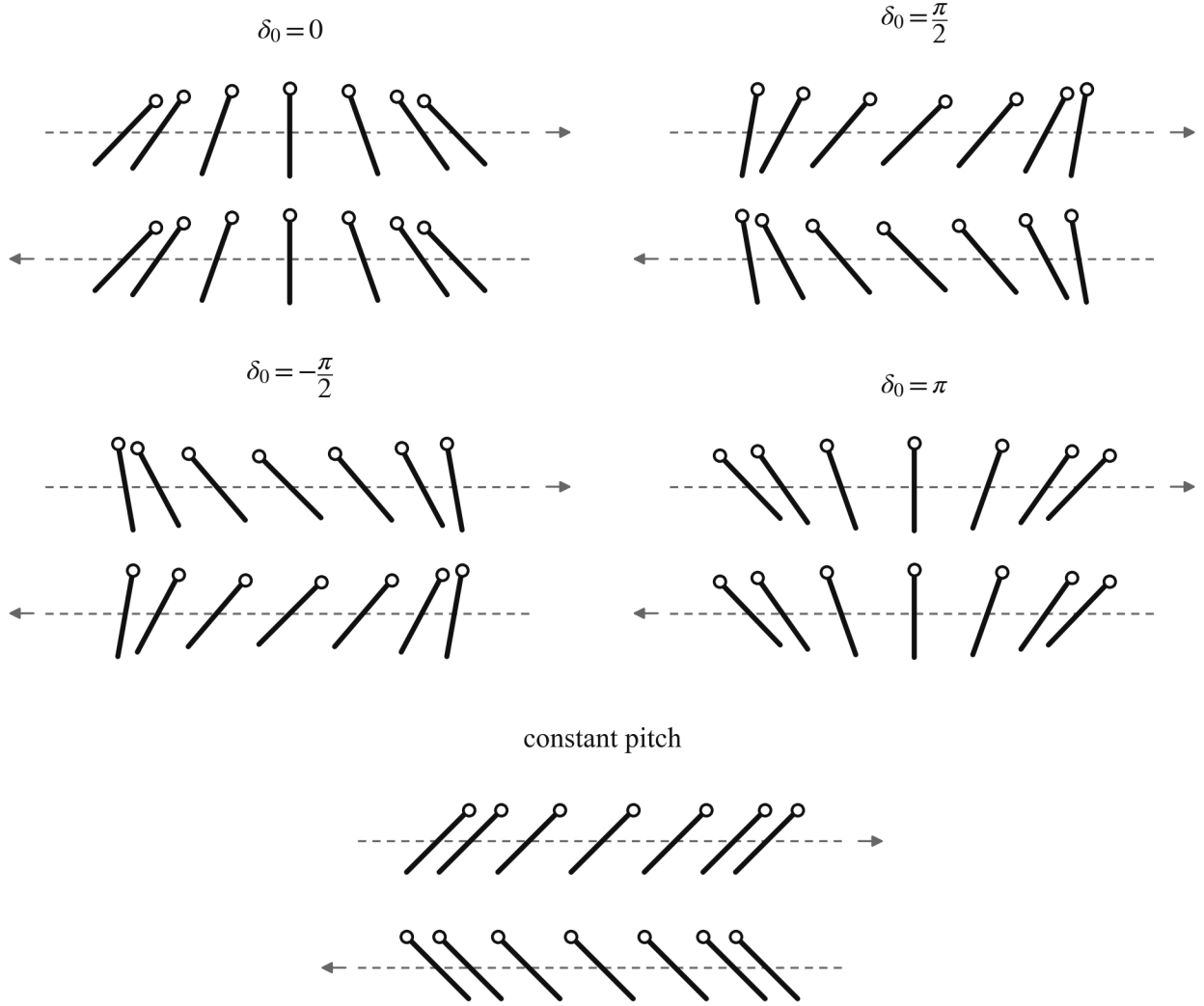


Figure 4: Wing motion through the two halves of the flapping cycle, for the sinusoidal pitch kinematics with $\delta_0 \in \{0, \frac{\pi}{2}, -\frac{\pi}{2}, \pi\}$ and for the constant-pitch simplification. Across all panels, $\psi_0 = 0$ and $\psi_1 = 45^\circ$. The top row shows the half-stroke along $+\hat{s}$ (with $\hat{s}$ pointing right) and the bottom row the half-stroke along $-\hat{s}$. Arrows indicate the direction of motion, the hollow circle marks the wing leading edge, and snapshots are taken at equal time increments, crowding near the stroke reversals where the flapping motion slows. The constant-pitch kinematics match the $\delta_0 = \pi/2$ kinematics well, except near stroke reversal.

2.4 Equation of Motion and Nondimensionalization

The point mass is subjected to its own weight and to the aerodynamic force from each wing pair, so the equation of motion is

$$m \frac{d^2 \vec{x}}{dt^2} = m \vec{g} + \frac{1}{2} \rho A \sum_{i=1}^N \frac{1}{N} |\vec{v}_i|^2 [C_{L,i} \hat{\ell}_i + C_{D,i} \hat{d}_i] \quad (19)$$

The equation can be nondimensionalized using the body length L as the length scale, and the gravitational time scale $\sqrt{L/g}$, giving an ‘acceleration scale’ g and a ‘velocity scale’ $\sqrt{gL}$. Introducing the $*$ superscript to denote nondimensionalized quantities, the equation of motion can be divided by mg and becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \ddot{x}^* \hat{x} + \ddot{z}^* \hat{z} &= -\hat{z} + \frac{1}{2} \frac{\rho AL}{m} \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N \frac{1}{gL} |\vec{v}_i|^2 [C_{L,i} \hat{\ell}_i + C_{D,i} \hat{d}_i] \\ &= -\hat{z} + \frac{1}{2} \frac{\rho AL}{m} \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N |\vec{v}_i^*|^2 [C_{L,i} \hat{\ell}_i + C_{D,i} \hat{d}_i] \end{aligned} \quad (20)$$

in which (dropping the i subscript for conciseness)

$$\vec{v}^* = \frac{1}{\sqrt{gL}} (\vec{u} + \vec{s}) \quad (21)$$

We introduce the dimensionless inverse wing loading A^*/m^* defined as

$$\frac{A^*}{m^*} = \frac{\rho AL}{m} \quad (22)$$

giving the final form of the dimensionless equation of motion

$$\ddot{x}^* \hat{x} + (\ddot{z}^* + 1) \hat{z} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N |\vec{v}_i^*|^2 [C_{L,i} \hat{\ell}_i + C_{D,i} \hat{d}_i] \quad (23)$$

The wing kinematics themselves must also be nondimensionalized. Introducing $\tau^* = \omega t$ and $s_0^* = s_0/L$,

$$s^*(\tau^*) = s_0^* \cos(\tau^* + \phi) \quad (24)$$

$$\psi(\tau^*) = \psi_0 + \psi_1 \cos(\tau^* + \phi - \delta_0) \quad (25)$$

Finally, the dimensionless wing velocity along $\hat{s}$ relative to the body is

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{s}^*(\tau^*) &= \frac{1}{\sqrt{gL}} \frac{d}{dt} s_0 \cos(\omega t + \phi) \\ &= -\frac{1}{\sqrt{gL}} s_0 \omega \sin(\tau^* + \phi) \\ &= -s_0^* \omega^* \sin(\tau^* + \phi) \end{aligned} \quad (26)$$

with $\omega^* = \omega \sqrt{L/g}$. The dimensionless velocities can be used straightforwardly in place of the dimensional velocities in the expressions of [subsection 2.2](#) to obtain C_L and C_D . In the following, we deal exclusively with the dimensionless quantities.

3 Controller Design

3.1 Problem Statement

We wish to design a control strategy to achieve arbitrary trajectories in the two-dimensional plane, including prey pursuit trajectories. We assume that the flyer's own state is known using a variety of sensory inputs, so position and velocity are available as inputs to the controller. In addition, when a prey is present in the environment, the bearing angle to the prey, as detected by the eyes, is also an available input. Because we are particularly interested in *dragonfly* flight, we make two design decisions such that the resulting flight characteristics resemble those of a dragonfly. First, hovering should be achieved with an inclined stroke plane (tilted from the horizontal), characterized by the parameter γ^{hover} . Second, when at speed, the stroke-plane normal should be approximately aligned with the direction of travel, as observed in experiments [4]. This last choice will simplify the analysis to follow, since any flow velocity component parallel to the stroke plane can be neglected. With these choices in mind, the contents of this section otherwise hold for flapping flight in general, as we do not assume specific morphological characteristics like number of wing pairs, size, etc.

3.2 Mean Aerodynamic Force

3.2.1 Definitions and Assumptions

To affect its trajectory, the flying body must modulate and direct the aerodynamic force acting on its wings. Because the aerodynamic force on a flapping wing is by nature highly unsteady, it is convenient to consider the wingbeat-cycle average of the aerodynamic force, summed over each of the wings, which we call the *mean aerodynamic force*, $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$. Throughout, $\langle \cdot \rangle$ denotes the average over one wingbeat cycle, $\langle f \rangle = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{2\pi} f d\tau^*$, evaluated at fixed body velocity. In reality, body velocity is not constant over a wingbeat cycle: there are (a) oscillations inherent to flapping, and there may be (b) a net change in body velocity between the start and end of the cycle. Assuming the oscillations are small compared to the characteristic wing velocity, and that any body velocity changes occur at a slow rate relative to the wingbeat period, the body velocity may be considered constant over a wingbeat cycle. The following assumes these conditions are met. Our objective is now to understand how $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ depends on the wing kinematics at any given body velocity, so that we are able to formulate a control strategy.

As explained in [subsection 3.1](#), we are designing a controller under the assumption that the body velocity is normal to the stroke plane. Beyond morphology and kinematics, then, there is a single body velocity parameter $\langle u^* \rangle$, which is the cycle-averaged body velocity magnitude (the direction being set to the stroke-plane normal $\hat{n}$). It is convenient to introduce a similarity parameter in the form of the *advance ratio*, J , which is the ratio of the cycle-averaged body velocity to the characteristic wing velocity:

$$J = \frac{\langle u^* \rangle}{s_0^* \omega^*} \quad (27)$$

The instantaneous wing velocity $\vec{v}^*$ relative to the air has the stroke-plane normal and in-plane components

$$v_n^* = \langle u^* \rangle = s_0^* \omega^* J \quad (28)$$

$$v_s^* = -s_0^* \omega^* \sin \tau^* \quad (29)$$

with τ^* as introduced in [section 2](#), and the $+\hat{s}$ half-stroke corresponds to $\sin \tau^* < 0$. Note that the phase term ϕ is dropped. Indeed each wing pair carries the same area fraction $1/N$ and differs from the others only by its phase ϕ , which shifts its force history within the cycle without changing the cycle average at fixed body velocity. The per-pair averages are therefore identical, the sum over pairs and the $1/N$ factors cancel, and $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ is computed below as for a single lumped wing of total area A , with ϕ dropped. Phase differences do

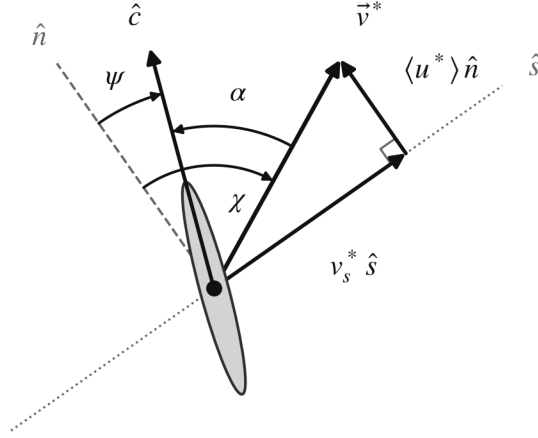


Figure 5: Stroke-frame velocity decomposition and flow angle. With the body velocity assumed normal to the stroke plane, the instantaneous wing velocity $\vec{v}^*$ composes the in-plane flapping component $v_s^* \hat{s}$ with the normal component $\langle u^* \rangle \hat{n}$. The pitch angle ψ and the flow angle χ are measured from $\hat{n}$ with the same signed sense (positive tilting toward $-\hat{s}$), locating the chord direction $\hat{c}$ and the velocity direction $\hat{v}$, so the angle of attack is $\alpha = \psi - \chi$. Drawn on the $+\hat{s}$ half-stroke ($\sin \tau^* < 0$), where both ψ and χ are negative.

shape the *instantaneous* force, which is smoother when the lumped wings beat out of phase, but not the mean force. The squared norm of the velocity is

$$(v^*)^2 = (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 [J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*] \quad (30)$$

We introduce the signed angle χ from $\hat{n}$ to $\vec{v}^*$, defined as

$$\chi = -\tan^{-1} \frac{v_s^*}{v_n^*} = \tan^{-1} \frac{\sin \tau^*}{J} \quad (31)$$

Both ψ and χ are signed angles measured from $\hat{n}$ with the same sense (positive tilting counterclockwise, toward $-\hat{s}$). They locate the chord direction $\hat{c}$, and the velocity direction $\hat{v}$, respectively. The angle of attack as defined in [section 2](#) (the signed angle from $\hat{v}$ to $\hat{c}$) is therefore simply

$$\alpha = \psi - \chi = \psi - \tan^{-1} \frac{\sin \tau^*}{J} \quad (32)$$

The stroke-frame velocity decomposition and the angles ψ , χ , and α are illustrated in [Figure 5](#).

3.2.2 Hover Case ($J = 0$)

The mean aerodynamic force derivation is somewhat involved in the general case, so we first present the hovering case, which corresponds to $J = 0$. With $J = 0$, the flow angle saturates at $\chi = \frac{\pi}{2} \frac{\sin \tau^*}{|\sin \tau^*|}$ and the angle of attack simplifies to

$$\alpha = \psi - \frac{\pi}{2} \frac{\sin \tau^*}{|\sin \tau^*|} \quad (33)$$

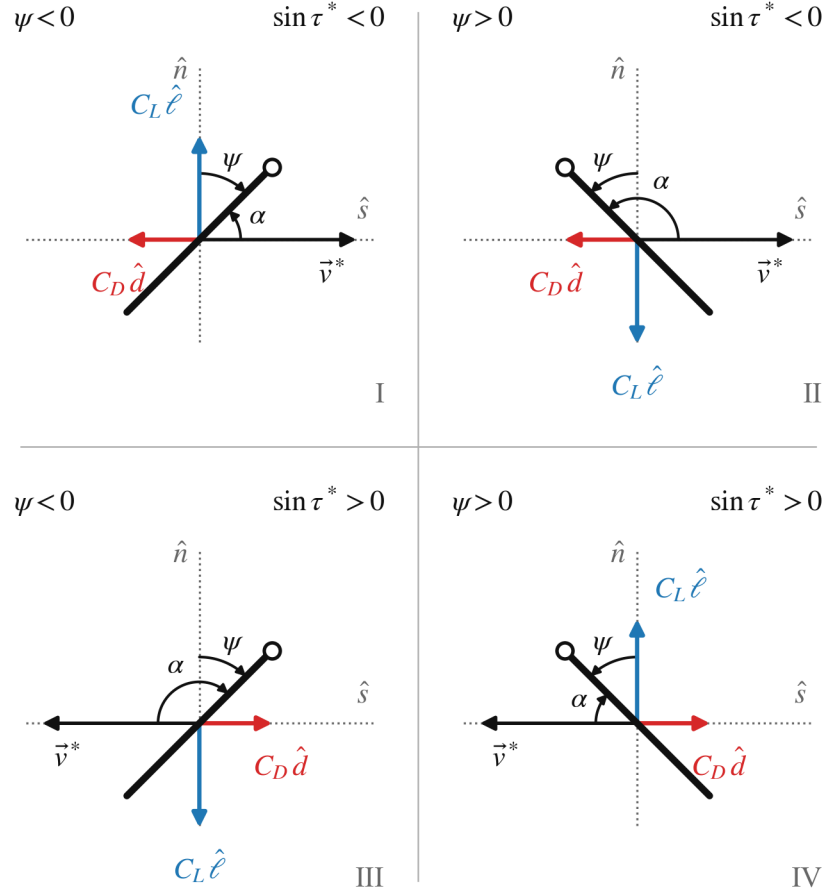


Figure 6: Lift and drag directions over the hover wingbeat ($J = 0$), for the four sign combinations of the pitch angle ψ and the stroke phase $\sin \tau^*$, drawn in the stroke frame. The wing velocity $\vec{v}^*$ is purely in-plane, so drag is purely in-plane, and lift is purely out-of-plane. The hollow circle marks the leading edge. The pitch angle ψ , measured from $\hat{n}$, and the angle of attack α of Equation 33, measured from $\hat{v}$, are marked as in Figure 5. α quadrants I–IV are marked as in Figure 3. The “useful” quadrants (lift along $\hat{n}$) are I and IV.

Using the appropriate trigonometric identities, the aerodynamic coefficients (defined in Equation 1 and Equation 2) are

$$C_L = -C_{L,0} \sin 2\psi \quad (34)$$

$$C_D = \frac{C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} + C_{D,0}}{2} + \frac{C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} - C_{D,0}}{2} \cos 2\psi \quad (35)$$

both independent of the stroke direction; the direction dependence resides entirely in the force direction vectors. Because the wing velocity relative to the air is purely in-plane (along $\hat{s}$), the in-plane aerodynamic force component is purely drag, and the out-of-plane component (along $\hat{n}$) is purely lift: the force directions are $\hat{d} = \frac{\sin \tau^*}{|\sin \tau^*|} \hat{s}$ and $\hat{\ell} = -\hat{d}^\perp = -\frac{\sin \tau^*}{|\sin \tau^*|} \hat{n}$, alternating with the stroke direction, as shown in Figure 6. The

mean aerodynamic force components are

$$\begin{aligned}\langle F_n^* \rangle &= -\frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \langle C_L \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 C_{L,0} \langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle\end{aligned}\quad (36)$$

$$\begin{aligned}\langle F_s^* \rangle &= \frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \langle C_D \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \frac{C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} - C_{D,0}}{2} \langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle\end{aligned}\quad (37)$$

Note the constant drag term vanishes because $\langle \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle = 0$. We introduce the shorthand $\Delta C_D = C_{D,\frac{\pi}{2}} - C_{D,0}$. The expressions feature a common pre-factor we call q^* , defined as

$$q^* = \frac{1}{4} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \quad (38)$$

We further introduce the normal and in-plane force coefficients $C_{F_n^*}$ and $C_{F_s^*}$, defined as

$$C_{F_n^*} = \frac{\langle F_n^* \rangle}{q^*} = 2C_{L,0} \langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \quad (39)$$

$$C_{F_s^*} = \frac{\langle F_s^* \rangle}{q^*} = \Delta C_D \langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \quad (40)$$

which we synthesize into the overall force magnitude coefficient

$$C_{F^*} = \sqrt{C_{F_n^*}^2 + C_{F_s^*}^2} \quad (41)$$

This coefficient is useful because it is only a function of the pitch kinematic parameters and the lift and drag coefficient parameters, and is independent of morphology and wingbeat frequency and amplitude, which appear only in the pre-factor q^* . By maximizing the value of this coefficient, given a constraint on the force direction required to achieve a given maneuver, the characteristic wingbeat velocity $s_0^* \omega^*$ can be minimized. With our parametrization of the pitch kinematics, and with the lift and drag coefficient parameters set, C_{F^*} and its (n, s) decomposition are functions of 3 variables: ψ_0 , ψ_1 , and δ_0 . We visualize C_{F^*} , $C_{F_n^*}$, and $C_{F_s^*}$ across slices of this 3D space in [Figure 7](#) and [Figure 8](#).

As panel (a) of [Figure 8](#) makes evident, significantly more force is produced when $\delta_0 = \pm 90^\circ$. Because $\delta_0 = -90^\circ$ results in the mean force pointing along $-\hat{n}$ when the mean pitch is neutral ($\psi_0 = 0^\circ$), we select $\delta_0 = +90^\circ$ as the operating point. This choice maximizes the mean force for a given (ψ_0, ψ_1) , and reduces the pitch parameter space to 2D. How then do we select ψ_0 and ψ_1 ? It is clear from panel (b) that a certain value of ψ_1 maximizes C_{F^*} for any given ψ_0 . We will call it ψ_1^{opt} . In addition, $\psi_0 = 0^\circ \pmod{90^\circ}$ maximizes C_{F^*} . Looking at panel (b) of [Figure 7](#), it is clear that the in-plane force component is zero when $\psi_0 = 0^\circ \pmod{90^\circ}$, so the force is purely normal to the stroke plane. In addition, from panel (a) of the same figure, we see that $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$ results in the mean force pointing towards $+\hat{n}$, while $\psi_0 = \pm 90^\circ$ results in the mean force pointing towards $-\hat{n}$. We select neutral pitch ($\psi_0 = 0^\circ$) as the reference, for consistency with the choice of $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$. In summary, the reference pitch kinematics

$$\psi_0 = 0^\circ \quad \psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}} \quad \delta_0 = 90^\circ \quad (42)$$

result in $C_{F^*} = C_{F^*}^{\text{max}}$, and $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ pointing towards $+\hat{n}$.

These reference kinematics allow for *efficient* hover (in the sense that the characteristic wingbeat velocity $s_0^* \omega^*$ is minimized, because C_{F^*} is maximized) when the stroke plane is horizontal ($\gamma^{\text{hover}} = 0^\circ$). Indeed,

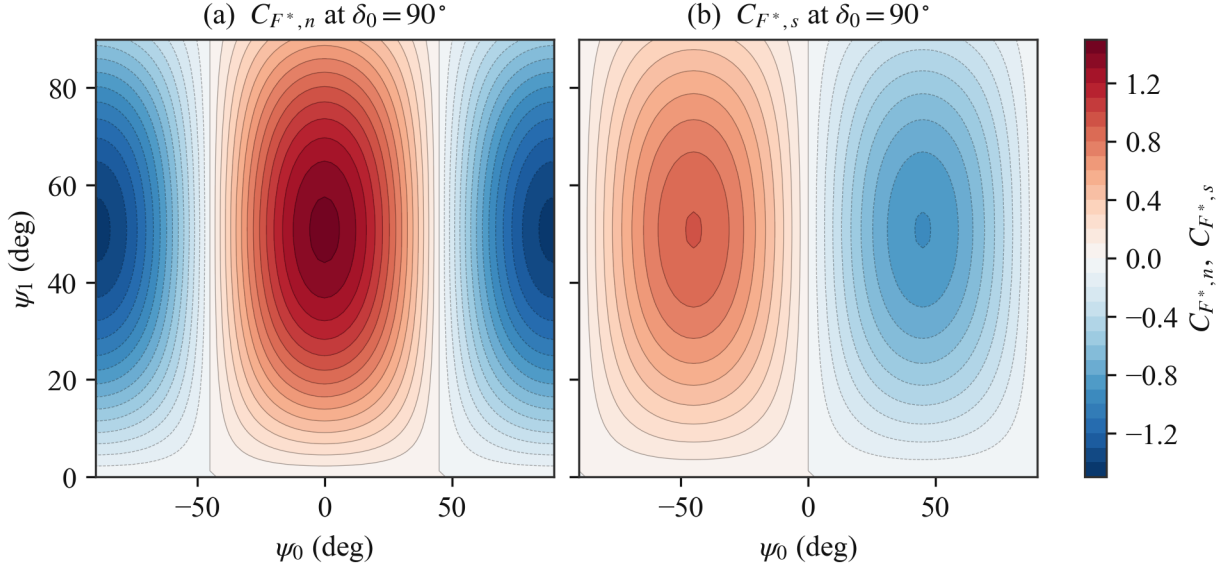


Figure 7: (a) Stroke-plane-normal (lift) component $C_{F_n}^*$ and (b) in-plane (drag) component $C_{F_s}^*$ of the force coefficient over the pitch plane at $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$. The force direction quadrant in the $(\hat{s}, \hat{n})$ plane can be inferred from the signs.

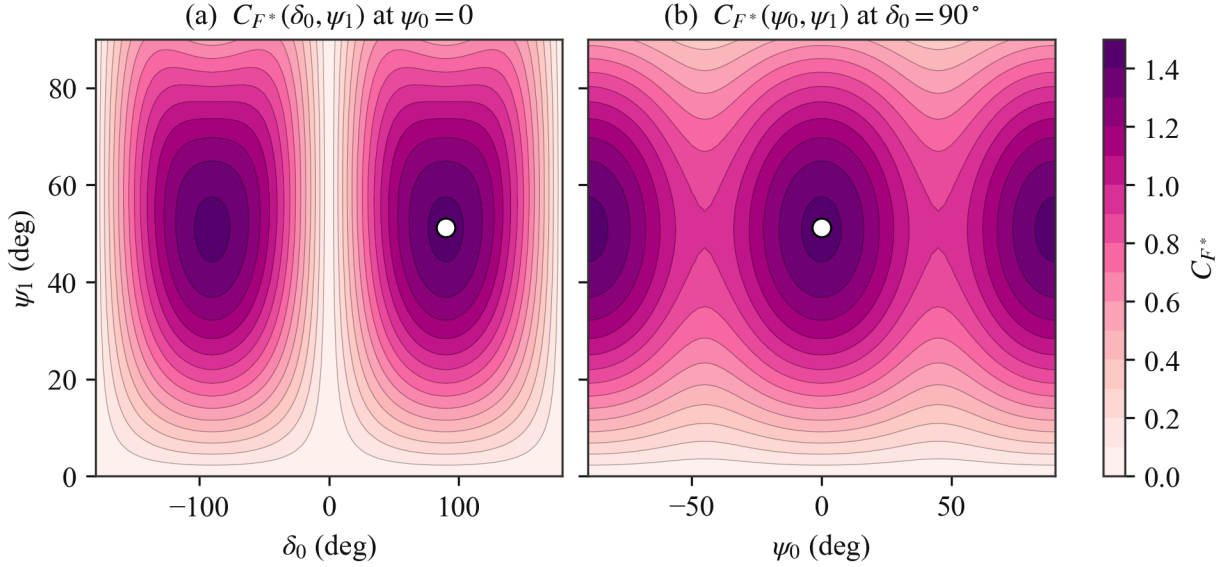


Figure 8: Dependence of C_{F^*} on pitch parameters at zero body velocity over (a) the (δ_0, ψ_1) plane at $\psi_0 = 0$ and (b) the (ψ_0, ψ_1) plane at $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$. Maximum shown as a white dot on both panels.

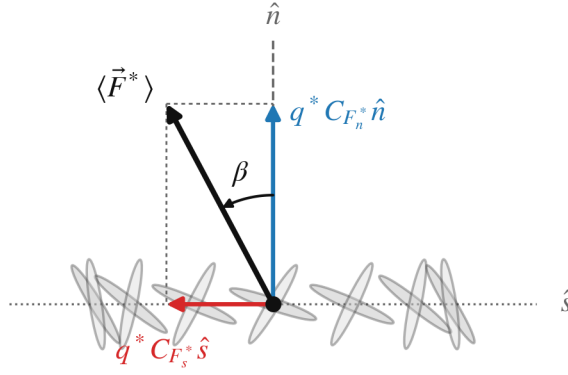


Figure 9: Definition of the mean-force direction angle β . The mean force $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle = q^* (C_{F_n}^* \hat{n} + C_{F_s}^* \hat{s})$ is decomposed into its stroke-frame components (Equation 39, Equation 40). Here the positive mean pitch gives $C_{F_s}^* < 0$, so the force tilts counterclockwise off the normal and β is positive. The wing is drawn over one full wingbeat.

since the mean force vector points towards $+\hat{n}$, $+\hat{n}$ must be vertical and opposed to the direction of gravity. To model dragonfly hover specifically, at an inclined stroke plane ($\gamma^{\text{hover}} \neq 0^\circ$), the mean force vector must have an in-plane component. Looking at panel (b) of Figure 7, it is clear that this can be achieved by changing ψ_0 , away from the symmetric 0° point. For convenience, we introduce β , the signed angle from the stroke-plane normal $\hat{n}$ to the mean force vector. Since the mean force is $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle = q^* (C_{F_n}^* \hat{n} + C_{F_s}^* \hat{s})$, β can be expressed from the $C_{F_n}^*$ and $C_{F_s}^*$ coefficients (Equation 39 and Equation 40) as

$$\beta = -\tan^{-1} \frac{C_{F_s}^*}{C_{F_n}^*} = -\tan^{-1} \left[\frac{\Delta C_D}{2C_{L,0}} \frac{\langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle}{\langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle} \right] \quad (43)$$

β carries the same signed sense as ψ and χ (positive counterclockwise, from $\hat{n}$ toward $-\hat{s}$), hence the minus sign (see Figure 9). We can simplify the $\langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle / \langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle$ ratio in the above expression. With $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$, the pitch kinematics reduce to $\psi = \psi_0 + \psi_1 \sin \tau^*$. Using the appropriate trigonometric identities,

$$\cos 2\psi = \cos 2\psi_0 \cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) - \sin 2\psi_0 \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \quad (44)$$

$$\sin 2\psi = \sin 2\psi_0 \cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) + \cos 2\psi_0 \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \quad (45)$$

Under the half-period shift $\tau^* \rightarrow \tau^* + \pi$, the factors $\sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle$ and $\sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ change sign while $\cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ is unchanged, so the $\cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ terms average to zero, leading to

$$\langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle = -\sin 2\psi_0 \langle \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \quad (46)$$

$$\langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle = \cos 2\psi_0 \langle \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle \quad (47)$$

The common $\langle \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle$ factor cancels out in the ratio, giving simply

$$\frac{\langle \cos 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle}{\langle \sin 2\psi \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle} = -\tan 2\psi_0 \quad (48)$$

and Equation 43 becomes

$$\beta = \tan^{-1} \left[\frac{\Delta C_D}{2C_{L,0}} \tan 2\psi_0 \right] \quad (49)$$

Importantly, β is independent of ψ_1 , and is only controlled by ψ_0 . It follows that ψ_0 is an appropriate control variable for the mean force direction relative to the stroke-plane normal $\hat{n}$. β is shown as a function of ψ_0 in Figure 10. As discussed above, C_{F^*} becomes less than its maximum when $\psi_0 \neq 0^\circ \pmod{90^\circ}$, away from the reference pitch kinematics, so it is also shown in addition to β . In the $\Delta C_D/(2C_{L,0}) \rightarrow 1$ limit,

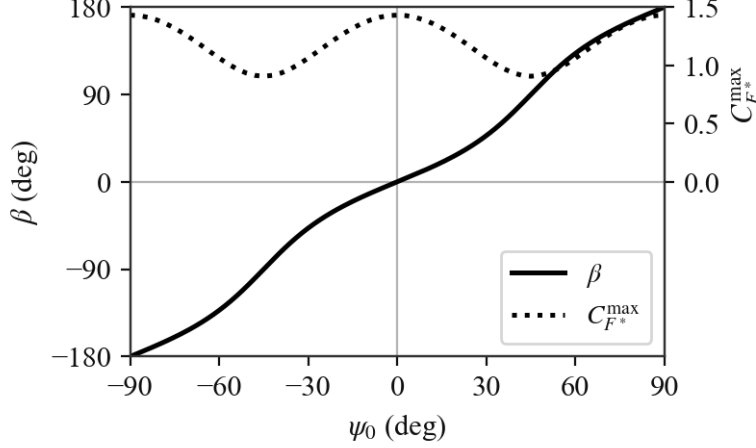


Figure 10: Effect of ψ_0 on force direction angle β and force coefficient C_{F^*} .

the relation between β and ψ_0 can be approximated as $\beta \approx 2\psi_0$. This holds only roughly here because $\Delta C_D/(2C_{L,0}) = 1.9/3 \approx 0.63$, but the trend is the same, as can be seen in the figure. To achieve hover at an inclined stroke plane with tilt angle γ^{hover} , the mean force vector angle must be $\beta = -\gamma^{\text{hover}}$. This requires $\psi_0 = \psi_0^{\text{hover}}$, given by Equation 49 (specifically the inverse relation) when $\beta = -\gamma^{\text{hover}}$. The two hover configurations are illustrated in Figure 11.

Now that we have narrowed down the pitch kinematics for hover, we step back to consider the flapping kinematics as well, governed by parameters s_0^* (amplitude) and ω^* (frequency). The condition for hover on the mean force magnitude is

$$C_{F^*} q^* = 1 \implies (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 = \frac{4}{C_{F^*} \frac{A^*}{m^*}} \quad (50)$$

We prefer to consider ω^* as a fixed parameter rather than a control variable, leaving s_0^* as the primary control for the force amplitude. The hover value is given by

$$(s_0^*)^{\text{hover}} = \frac{1}{\omega^*} \sqrt{\frac{4}{C_{F^*}^{\text{hover}} \frac{A^*}{m^*}}} \quad (51)$$

The hover kinematic parameters are summarized in Table 1. The control variables are s_0^* and ψ_0 .

Table 1: Wing kinematic parameters for hover

Parameter	Value	Depends on
s_0^*	$(s_0^*)^{\text{hover}}$	$\frac{A^*}{m^*}$ ω^* γ^{hover} $C_{L,0}$ ΔC_D
ψ_0	ψ_0^{hover}	γ^{hover} $C_{L,0}$ ΔC_D
ψ_1	ψ_1^{opt}	None
δ_0	90°	None

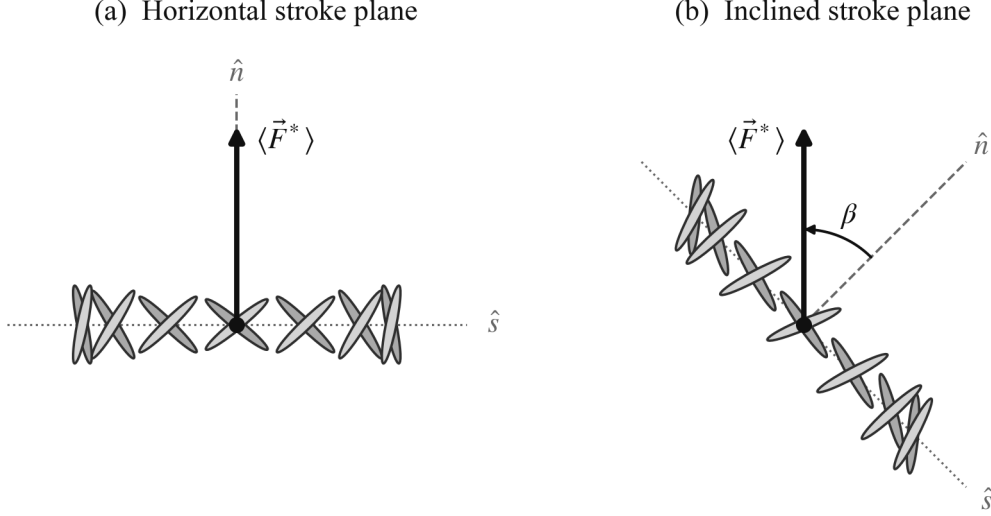


Figure 11: Hover at (a) a horizontal stroke plane and (b) an inclined stroke plane (drawn here with $\gamma < 0$). The wing is drawn over one full wingbeat at equal time increments, with the $-\hat{s}$ half-stroke behind, in darker grey, and the $+\hat{s}$ half-stroke in front. In (a), the reference pitch kinematics ($\psi_0 = 0^\circ$) set the mean force $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ vertically along $\hat{n}$. In (b), the mean force remains vertical while $\hat{n}$ is tilted because ψ_0^{hover} is trimmed to bias $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ by $\beta = -\gamma^{\text{hover}}$ using the inverse of Equation 49.

3.2.3 General Case ($J \geq 0$)

For $J \neq 0$, the wing velocity relative to the air is no longer purely in-plane, so lift and drag each contribute to both force components. In terms of the angle χ , the wing velocity direction is $\hat{v} = \cos \chi \hat{n} - \sin \chi \hat{s}$. Drag acts along $-\hat{v}$, and lift acts along the perpendicular direction

$$\hat{\ell} = -\hat{v}^\perp = -\cos \chi \hat{s} - \sin \chi \hat{n} \quad (52)$$

recovering the hover directions at $\chi = \pm \frac{\pi}{2}$. The instantaneous force is

$$\vec{F}^* = \frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (v^*)^2 (C_L \hat{\ell} - C_D \hat{v}) \quad (53)$$

with components

$$F_n^* = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (v^*)^2 (\sin \chi C_L + \cos \chi C_D) \quad (54)$$

$$F_s^* = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (v^*)^2 (\cos \chi C_L - \sin \chi C_D) \quad (55)$$

Substituting $\cos \chi = J / \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}$, $\sin \chi = \sin \tau^* / \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}$, and the expression for $(v^*)^2$ (Equation 30), we get

$$F_n^* = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} (\sin \tau^* C_L + J C_D) \quad (56)$$

$$F_s^* = -\frac{1}{2} \frac{A^*}{m^*} (s_0^* \omega^*)^2 \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} (J C_L - \sin \tau^* C_D) \quad (57)$$

From $\alpha = \psi - \chi$ (Equation 32), the aerodynamic coefficients (Equation 1 and Equation 2) expand as

$$C_L = C_{L,0} (\cos 2\chi \sin 2\psi - \sin 2\chi \cos 2\psi) \quad (58)$$

$$C_D = \bar{C}_D - \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} (\cos 2\chi \cos 2\psi + \sin 2\chi \sin 2\psi) \quad (59)$$

where we define $\bar{C}_D \equiv (C_{D, \frac{\pi}{2}} + C_{D,0})/2$ for brevity, and where the double angles are smooth functions of the wing phase:

$$\cos 2\chi = \frac{J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*}{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} \quad \sin 2\chi = \frac{2J \sin \tau^*}{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} \quad (60)$$

Substituting into the force components and averaging, the force coefficients are

$$C_{F_n^*} = -2 \left\langle \frac{[C_{L,0} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*) - \Delta C_D J^2] \sin \tau^* \sin 2\psi}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle + 2 \left\langle \frac{J [2C_{L,0} \sin^2 \tau^* + \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*)] \cos 2\psi}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle - 2J\bar{C}_D \langle \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} \rangle \quad (61)$$

$$C_{F_s^*} = -2 \left\langle \frac{J [C_{L,0} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*) + \Delta C_D \sin^2 \tau^*] \sin 2\psi}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle + 2 \left\langle \frac{[2C_{L,0} J^2 - \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*)] \sin \tau^* \cos 2\psi}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle \quad (62)$$

Note the constant ($\bar{C}_D$) drag term of $C_{F_s^*}$ vanishes because $\langle \sin \tau^* \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} \rangle = 0$. Setting $J = 0$ recovers Equation 39 and Equation 40, as expected. At the operating point $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$, $\psi = \psi_0 + \psi_1 \sin \tau^*$, and the parity argument of the hover case applies unchanged: under $\tau^* \rightarrow \tau^* + \pi$, the bracketed polynomials and $\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}$ are invariant, so expanding $\sin 2\psi$ and $\cos 2\psi$ and discarding the vanishing averages leaves

$$C_{F_n^*} = 2 I_n(J, \psi_1) \cos 2\psi_0 - 2J\bar{C}_D I_0(J) \quad (63)$$

$$C_{F_s^*} = -2 I_s(J, \psi_1) \sin 2\psi_0 \quad (64)$$

with

$$I_0 = \langle \sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*} \rangle \quad (65)$$

$$I_n = \left\langle \frac{J [2C_{L,0} \sin^2 \tau^* + \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*)] \cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle - \left\langle \frac{[C_{L,0} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*) - \Delta C_D J^2] \sin \tau^* \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle \quad (66)$$

$$I_s = \left\langle \frac{J [C_{L,0} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*) + \Delta C_D \sin^2 \tau^*] \cos (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle + \left\langle \frac{[2C_{L,0} J^2 - \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} (J^2 - \sin^2 \tau^*)] \sin \tau^* \sin (2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle \quad (67)$$

The angle from the stroke-plane normal to the mean force (Equation 43) becomes

$$\beta = \tan^{-1} \left[\frac{I_s \sin 2\psi_0}{I_n \cos 2\psi_0 - J \bar{C}_D I_0} \right] \quad (68)$$

In the limit $J \rightarrow 0$, the I_0 term vanishes and

$$I_n \rightarrow C_{L,0} \langle \sin(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* | \rangle \quad I_s \rightarrow \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} \langle \sin(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* | \rangle \quad (69)$$

recovering Equation 49. The overall force coefficient C_{F^*} is shown in Figure 12 for values of J from 0 to 1, at $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$. Highlighted on each panel is the reference point from the hover plot Figure 8, tracked as it turns from a global maximum at $J = 0$ to a local maximum, and eventually to a saddle point. This point represents the maximum force available in the $+\hat{n}$ direction for a given J . The region of space within the dotted contour around the reference point corresponds to $C_{F_n^*} > 0$. Within this region, the stroke-plane-normal component of the mean force points towards $+\hat{n}$.

The values of C_{F^*} and ψ_1^{opt} at the reference point are shown as functions of J in Figure 13. As the figure makes clear, $\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$ decreases as J increases. Recall that $\alpha = \psi - \chi$ and consider the stroke half along $+\hat{s}$, as pictured in Figure 5. Mid-stroke, when $\sin \tau^* = \mp 1$, $\chi = \mp \tan^{-1}(1/J)$ ($-$ when the stroke is along $+\hat{s}$, $+$ when it is along $-\hat{s}$). This corresponds to a rotation of $\vec{v}^*$ towards the stroke plane normal $\hat{n}$ by an angle of magnitude $\pi/2 - \tan^{-1}(1/J) = \tan^{-1} J$. This suggests the following trend for $\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$:

$$\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J) \approx \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(0) - \tan^{-1} J \quad (70)$$

which is also shown in Figure 13, and does appear to be the leading order effect.

Finally, Figure 14 shows β as a function of ψ_0 for J from 0 to 1. Specifically, since β now depends on ψ_1 in addition to ψ_0 (see Equation 68), each line is obtained using the ψ_1 value adapted to the value of J (as shown in Figure 12). As J is increased, there is a clear steepening of the slope around $\psi_0 = 0$, meaning control authority is significantly increased.

We summarize the kinematic parameters for the general case in Table 2. Since there is no requirement for steady flight like in hover, no specific values for the control variables s_0^* and ψ_0 are prescribed, however the relevant variables that would inform the choice of the values are still listed.

Table 2: Wing kinematic parameters (general case)

Parameter	Value	Depends on						
s_0^*	—	$\frac{A^*}{m^*}$	ω^*	γ	$C_{L,0}$	ΔC_D	$\bar{C}_D$	J
ψ_0	—			γ	$C_{L,0}$	ΔC_D	$\bar{C}_D$	J
ψ_1	$\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$					J	$C_{L,0}$	ΔC_D
δ_0	90°							None

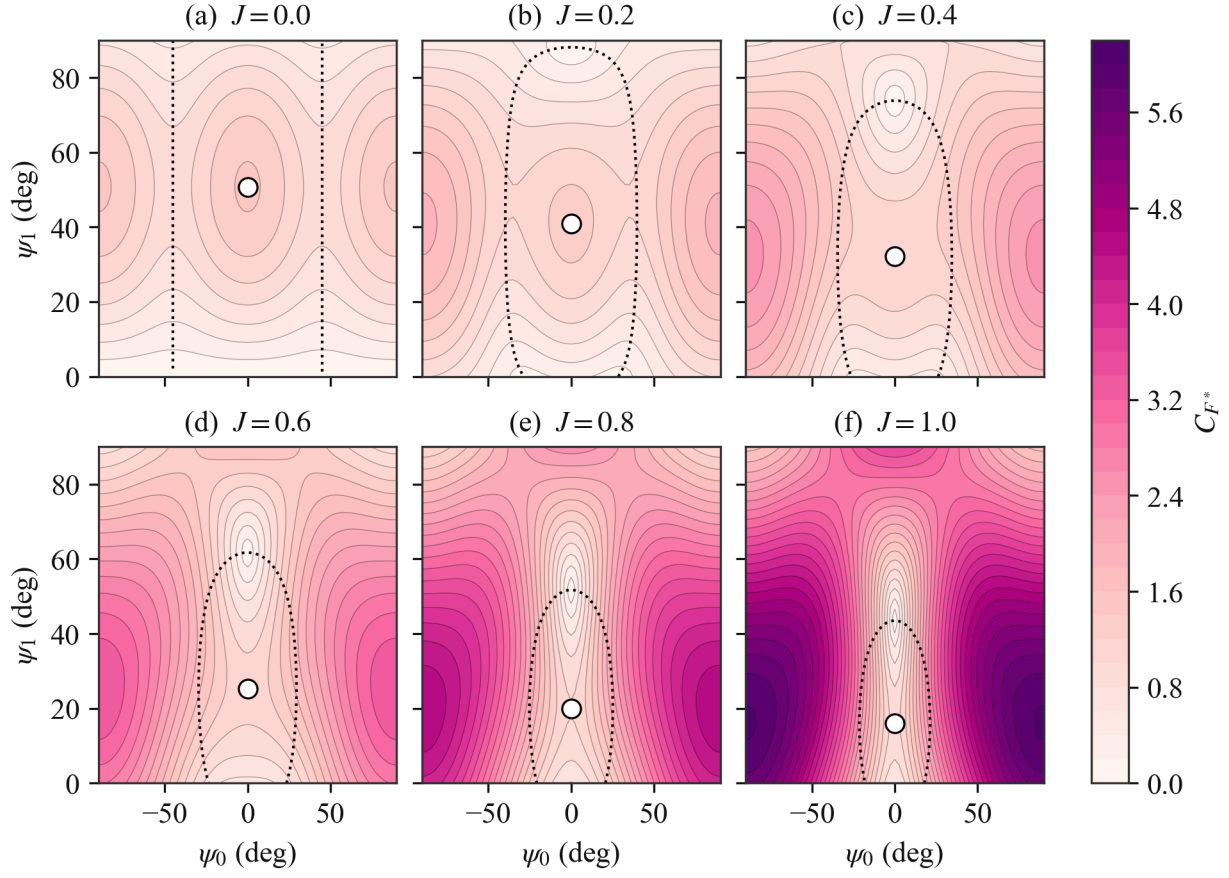


Figure 12: Force coefficient C_{F^*} over the pitch plane (ψ_0, ψ_1) at $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$, for increasing advance ratio J . White dots track the hover optimum as it moves with J . It remains on the $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$ axis by symmetry while ψ_1 decreases, and it turns from a local maximum into a saddle point. The global maximum sits at large $|\psi_0|$, where the force is dominated by drag from the normal inflow and points along $-\hat{n}$. The dotted contour marks $C_{F_n^*} = 0$, the boundary between propulsive ($+\hat{n}$) and braking ($-\hat{n}$) mean force.

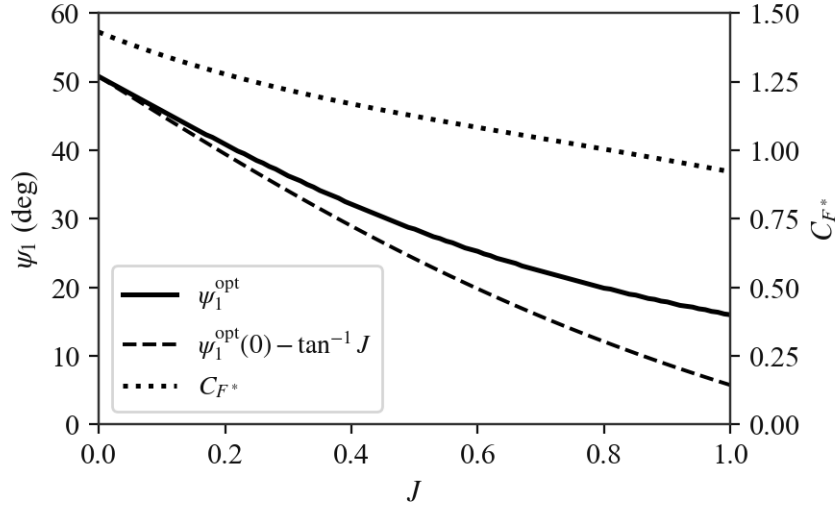


Figure 13: Pitch amplitude ψ_1^{opt} and force coefficient C_{F^*} of the continued hover optimum (the point tracked in Figure 12) as functions of advance ratio J . The dashed line is the approximation $\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(0) - \tan^{-1} J$, which holds the midstroke α constant as J increases.

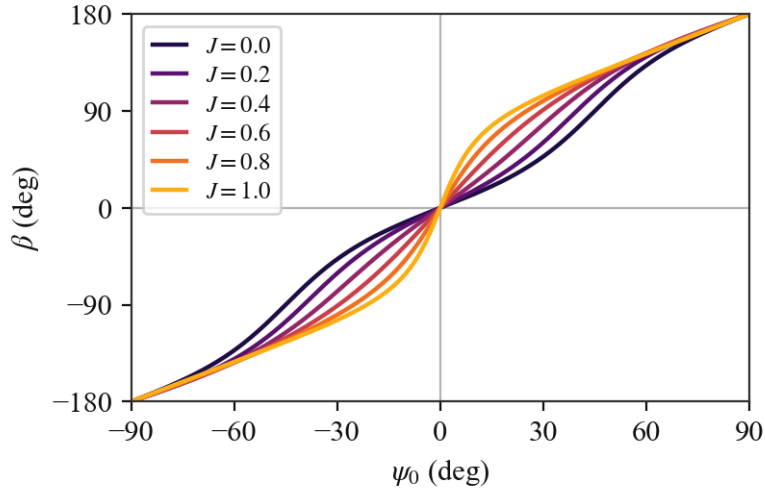


Figure 14: Effect of ψ_0 on the force direction angle β for increasing advance ratio J , at $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$ and with $\psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$. Unlike in the hover case, β depends on ψ_1 when $J > 0$.

3.2.4 Constant-Pitch Simplification

The general-case results above are exact but not closed-form: ψ_1 remains inside the cycle averages through the $\cos(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ and $\sin(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ factors, so quantities such as $\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$ and the maps of [Figure 12](#) must be evaluated numerically. Closed forms can be obtained by replacing the sinusoidal pitch schedule with the constant-pitch idealization of [section 2](#), restated here in terms of the stroke-direction sign $\sigma \equiv -\sin \tau^*/|\sin \tau^*|$ ($\sigma = +1$ on the $+\hat{s}$ half-stroke):

$$\psi(\tau^*) = \psi_0 - \sigma \psi_1 \quad (71)$$

which holds the pitch constant at $\psi_0 - \psi_1$ during the forward half-stroke ($\sigma = +1$) and at $\psi_0 + \psi_1$ during the backward half-stroke ($\sigma = -1$). The pitch flip occurs at stroke reversal, since we impose $\delta_0 = 90^\circ$.

This implies instantaneous rotation of the wing, which is not achievable by a real wing but is mostly harmless in the quasi-steady model because the in-plane wing velocity vanishes at reversal. The flip produces at most a bounded force discontinuity due to the normal inflow, when $J > 0$. The simulations in the remainder of this report retain the sinusoidal schedule; the constant-pitch law serves purely as an analytical surrogate.

Since $\sigma^2 = 1$, the pitch trigonometric factors are piecewise constant over each half-stroke:

$$\sin 2\psi = \sin 2\psi_0 \cos 2\psi_1 - \sigma \cos 2\psi_0 \sin 2\psi_1 \quad (72)$$

$$\cos 2\psi = \cos 2\psi_0 \cos 2\psi_1 + \sigma \sin 2\psi_0 \sin 2\psi_1 \quad (73)$$

Comparing with the expansions used in the hover case, the constant-pitch law simply amounts to the substitutions

$$\cos(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \rightarrow \cos 2\psi_1 \quad \sin(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*) \rightarrow -\sigma \sin 2\psi_1 \quad (74)$$

Since σ changes sign under the half-period shift $\tau^* \rightarrow \tau^* + \pi$, exactly like the $\sin(2\psi_1 \sin \tau^*)$ factor it replaces, every vanishing average identified previously still vanishes, and the pitch dependence now factors entirely out of the remaining averages.

In the hover case, applying the substitutions to [Equation 39](#) and [Equation 40](#), and using $\langle \sigma \sin \tau^* | \sin \tau^* \rangle = -\langle \sin^2 \tau^* \rangle = -\frac{1}{2}$, gives

$$C_{F_n^*} = C_{L,0} \sin 2\psi_1 \cos 2\psi_0 \quad C_{F_s^*} = -\frac{\Delta C_D}{2} \sin 2\psi_1 \sin 2\psi_0 \quad (75)$$

and therefore

$$C_{F^*} = \sin 2\psi_1 \sqrt{C_{L,0}^2 \cos^2 2\psi_0 + \frac{\Delta C_D^2}{4} \sin^2 2\psi_0} \quad (76)$$

The structure observed numerically in [Figure 7](#) and [Figure 8](#) is now explicit. The component ratio $C_{F_s^*}/C_{F_n^*} = -(\Delta C_D/2C_{L,0}) \tan 2\psi_0$ reproduces [Equation 49](#) identically—as it must, since that relation was derived independently of the ψ_1 schedule. The pitch amplitude enters only through the $\sin 2\psi_1$ prefactor, so the optimum is exact and independent of ψ_0 :

$$\psi_1^{\text{opt}} = 45^\circ \quad C_{F^*}^{\text{max}} = C_{L,0} \quad (77)$$

the latter attained at the reference $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$ (since $C_{L,0} > \Delta C_D/2$). The maximum has a transparent interpretation: with $\psi_1 = 45^\circ$ and $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$, the angle of attack is $\alpha = \psi + \sigma \frac{\pi}{2} = \sigma 45^\circ$, i.e. $|\alpha| = 45^\circ$ on both half-strokes—the constant-pitch law holds the wing at the lift-maximizing angle of attack for the entire cycle, so the force coefficient equals $C_{L,0}$ exactly. The sinusoidal schedule only passes through this ideal angle twice

per half-stroke, which is why its optimum is displaced ($\psi_1^{\text{opt}} \approx 51^\circ$) and slightly weaker ($C_{F^*}^{\text{max}} \approx 1.43$ versus $C_{L,0} = 1.5$, a 5% overestimate by the constant-pitch law).

In the general case, the same substitutions pull ψ_1 out of I_n and I_s :

$$I_n = A_n \cos 2\psi_1 + B_n \sin 2\psi_1 \quad I_s = A_s \cos 2\psi_1 + B_s \sin 2\psi_1 \quad (78)$$

where A_n , B_n , A_s , and B_s are functions of J only. Introducing the family of averages

$$W_k(J) = \left\langle \frac{|\sin \tau^*|^k}{\sqrt{J^2 + \sin^2 \tau^*}} \right\rangle \quad k \in \{0, 1, 2, 3\} \quad (79)$$

they read

$$A_n = J \left[\left(2C_{L,0} - \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} \right) W_2 + \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} J^2 W_0 \right] \quad A_s = J [C_{L,0} J^2 W_0 - (C_{L,0} - \Delta C_D) W_2] \quad (80)$$

$$B_n = C_{L,0} W_3 - (C_{L,0} - \Delta C_D) J^2 W_1 \quad B_s = \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} W_3 + \left(2C_{L,0} - \frac{\Delta C_D}{2} \right) J^2 W_1 \quad (81)$$

The odd- k members are elementary,

$$W_1 = \frac{2}{\pi} \tan^{-1} \frac{1}{J} \quad W_3 = \frac{1}{\pi} \left[\left(1 - J^2 \right) \tan^{-1} \frac{1}{J} + J \right] \quad (82)$$

while the even- k members, together with I_0 , are complete elliptic integrals: with $\mu = 1/(1 + J^2)$,

$$W_0 = \frac{2}{\pi} \sqrt{\mu} K(\mu) \quad W_2 = I_0 - J^2 W_0 \quad I_0 = \frac{2}{\pi} \frac{E(\mu)}{\sqrt{\mu}} \quad (83)$$

where $K(\mu) = \int_0^{\pi/2} (1 - \mu \sin^2 \theta)^{-1/2} d\theta$ and $E(\mu) = \int_0^{\pi/2} (1 - \mu \sin^2 \theta)^{1/2} d\theta$. Equation 63, Equation 64, and Equation 68 then hold unchanged with these I_n and I_s , so the mean aerodynamic force is closed-form in all of the kinematic parameters. Setting $J = 0$ gives $A_n = A_s = 0$, $B_n = C_{L,0}/2$, and $B_s = \Delta C_D/4$, recovering Equation 75.

Along the reference axis $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$, Equation 63 becomes a pure harmonic in $2\psi_1$,

$$C_{F_n^*} = 2 (A_n \cos 2\psi_1 + B_n \sin 2\psi_1) - 2J\bar{C}_D I_0 \quad (84)$$

so the continued hover optimum tracked numerically in Figure 13 becomes exact:

$$\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J) = \frac{1}{2} \tan^{-1} \frac{B_n}{A_n} \quad (C_{F_n^*})^{\text{max}} = 2\sqrt{A_n^2 + B_n^2} - 2J\bar{C}_D I_0 \quad (85)$$

At $J = 0$, $A_n = 0$ and $\psi_1^{\text{opt}} = 45^\circ$; as J grows, A_n increases from zero (both A_n and B_n are positive here), so ψ_1^{opt} decreases monotonically. The closed form thus reproduces, and explains, the trend of Figure 13: the growing $A_n \cos 2\psi_1$ term, which carries the normal-inflow contributions and peaks at $\psi_1 = 0^\circ$, pulls the optimum toward smaller pitch amplitudes—exactly the mechanism captured by the flow-tracking approximation drawn dashed in Figure 13. Table 3 compares the constant-pitch predictions with the sinusoidal schedule: ψ_1^{opt} is offset low by 5–6°, and the available force is captured to within 5% across $J \in [0, 1]$ (an overestimate at hover, a slight underestimate at speed).

Beyond its transparency, this limit has practical value for control. The trim of the two control variables (s_0^*, ψ_0) to a demanded mean force—performed numerically in subsection 3.4—becomes analytically invertible: for a demanded force direction, Equation 68 reduces to a harmonic equation of the form $a \sin 2\psi_0 + b \cos 2\psi_0 = c$ with known coefficients, yielding ψ_0 explicitly, after which s_0^* follows from the demanded force magnitude through q^* (Equation 38). The constant-pitch expressions could therefore serve as an analytical initialization—or replacement—for the numerical trim solver, at the cost of the few-percent model error quantified in Table 3.

Table 3: Continued hover optimum at $\psi_0 = 0^\circ$: constant-pitch closed form (Equation 85) versus the sinusoidal schedule evaluated numerically (Figure 13).

J	ψ_1^{opt}		$(C_{F_n})^{\text{max}}$	
	Constant	Sinusoidal	Constant	Sinusoidal
0	45.0°	50.8°	1.500	1.431
0.25	32.9°	38.5°	1.241	1.247
0.5	23.0°	28.5°	1.084	1.124
0.75	16.1°	21.1°	0.975	1.024
1	11.6°	16.0°	0.875	0.921

3.3 Control Strategy

From the above analysis, we propose a control strategy. It will be discussed qualitatively in this section, and formalized in the following section (subsection 3.4). We begin by going over *what to do* with each of the wing kinematic parameters.

- *Stroke plane angle γ* : when hovering, $\gamma = \gamma^{\text{hover}}$. When moving, γ should change to effectively obtain, or at least approximate, the axial inflow we have assumed in the analysis. There is the issue of the transition between these two phases, which may be abrupt if the commanded flight direction is not aligned with the stroke-plane normal at hover. We propose that γ be varied smoothly from its hover value to its moving flight value based on J .
- *Stroke amplitude s_0^** : primary control for the mean force magnitude, should be varied so that the force magnitude demand is met. In hovering or in general steady flight, this means having the mean force magnitude equal the weight.
- *Mean pitch ψ_0* : primary control for the mean force direction relative to the stroke-plane normal, should be varied so that the force direction demand is met. In hovering or in general steady flight, this means having the mean force vector point toward $+\hat{z}$.
- *Pitch amplitude ψ_1* : should be varied with J to maximize the available force, as shown in Figure 13.
- *Pitch phase δ_0* : fixed to 90° , not a control variable.
- *Wingbeat frequency ω^** : constant parameter, not a control variable.

In summary, the two variables that directly act to modulate and direct the force are s_0^* and ψ_0 . The two remaining variables, γ and ψ_1 , adapt to the velocity vector to respectively approximate an axial inflow, and maximize the available force.

A comment should be made here about the $\hat{x}$ -wise asymmetry introduced by the nonzero γ^{hover} . At low speeds, when the stroke plane is still close to its hover orientation, this will result in different behaviors for motion toward $+\hat{x}$ and $-\hat{x}$. To restore symmetry, we propose to flip the sign of γ^{hover} when the commanded flight direction changes.

3.4 Control Law

We now formalize the strategy of subsection 3.3. Let $\vec{x}^*$ and $\vec{u}^*$ be the body position and velocity. The force demand is formed by a velocity tracking law: given a reference velocity $\vec{u}_r^*$, the desired acceleration is

proportional to the velocity error, through a single gain K , and the weight is compensated:

$$\vec{a}_{\text{des}}^* = K (\vec{u}_r^* - \vec{u}^*) \quad (86)$$

$$\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle^{\text{des}} = \vec{a}_{\text{des}}^* + \hat{z} \quad (87)$$

No position or acceleration terms are used: the task enters the law only through $\vec{u}_r^*$. (A previous version of this report discusses augmenting Equation 87 with position feedback and acceleration feedforward terms to provide positional accuracy; we do not pursue this here.) The gain K has a simple closed-loop reading: whenever the trim described below delivers the demanded mean force, the cycle-averaged equation of motion reduces to $\langle \dot{\vec{u}}^* \rangle = K (\vec{u}_r^* - \vec{u}^*)$, first-order velocity tracking with time constant $1/K$. Two effects bound the gain from above. First, the law is actuated once per wingbeat, with the kinematic parameters held over each cycle, so the loop is discrete: over one wingbeat period $T^* = 2\pi/\omega^*$, the velocity error is multiplied by approximately $(1 - KT^*)$, giving stability for $KT^* < 2$ and one-beat convergence at $KT^* = 1$. Second, a large gain turns routine velocity errors into force demands outside the reachable force set, saturating the trim. Within these ceilings the choice is free; the simulations of section 4 all use $K = 2.7$, slightly above the one-beat gain of the reference configuration ($KT^* \approx 1.2$). The reference velocity defines the use case:

- *Hover*: $\vec{u}_r^* = \vec{0}$. The law nulls the body velocity, and the body hovers about wherever it settles; no reference position is involved.
- *Prescribed trajectory*: the trajectory is specified as a path traversed with a speed schedule, and $\vec{u}_r^*(t)$ is the velocity of the reference point moving along it—the unit tangent of the path, scaled by the scheduled speed. The path geometry enters the law only through this velocity history.
- *Prey pursuit*: the reference velocity is the desired closing speed along the line of sight to the prey,

$$\vec{u}_r^* = u_{\text{cmd}}^* \hat{r} \quad \hat{r} = \frac{\vec{x}_{\text{prey}}^* - \vec{x}^*}{|\vec{x}_{\text{prey}}^* - \vec{x}^*|} \quad (88)$$

formed from the line-of-sight bearing only, with no range information. The law then steers the velocity vector onto the line of sight as the body closes in.

The hover, trajectory, and pursuit geometries are illustrated in Figure 15, Figure 16, and Figure 17. With the force demand formulated, γ and ψ_1 must now adapt to the measured velocity. The advance ratio is evaluated as

$$J = \frac{|\vec{u}^*|}{(s_0^* \omega^*)^{\text{ref}}} \quad (89)$$

where $(s_0^* \omega^*)^{\text{ref}}$ is the wingbeat velocity of the reference configuration at the hover condition, held fixed so that J does not depend on the control variable s_0^* . This J is formed from the speed alone, regardless of the velocity direction relative to the stroke plane, and serves to parameterize the schedules; the trim below sees the full velocity vector. The stroke-plane angle blends from the inclined-hover value to the velocity-aligned value γ_u , defined such that $\hat{n}$ is aligned with $\vec{u}^*$ —the two-argument arctangent $\gamma_u = \text{atan2}(-u_x^*, u_z^*)$, giving $\mp 90^\circ$ in level flight toward $\pm \hat{x}$, 0° in climb, and $\pm 180^\circ$ in descent:

$$\gamma = [1 - f(J)] \sigma_x \gamma^{\text{hover}} + f(J) \gamma_u \quad f(J) = 1 - e^{-(J/J_c)^2} \quad (90)$$

with $J_c = 0.35$, placed between the two velocity regimes the schedule must separate: residual station-keeping velocities ($J \lesssim 0.1$) engage the blend by under a tenth ($f < 0.08$), keeping the stroke plane at its hover lean,

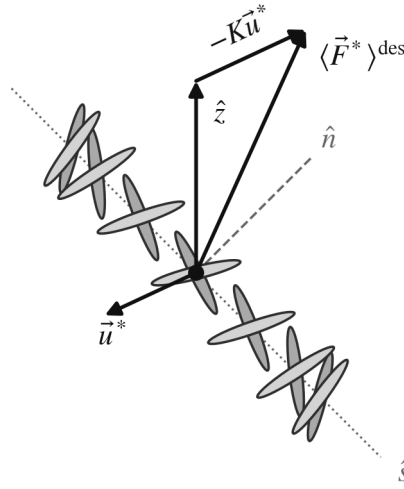


Figure 15: Control-law geometry in the hover use case. The reference velocity is zero (and therefore not drawn): the force demand of Equation 87 composes, tip to tail, the weight compensation $\hat{z}$ with the braking term $-K\vec{u}^*$ opposing the residual drift velocity $\vec{u}^*$, giving a resultant that supports the weight while arresting the drift. The stroke plane is pinned at $\gamma = \gamma^{\text{hover}} = -45^\circ$ with $\psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(0)$; wingbeat overlay as in Figure 11, arrow lengths schematic.

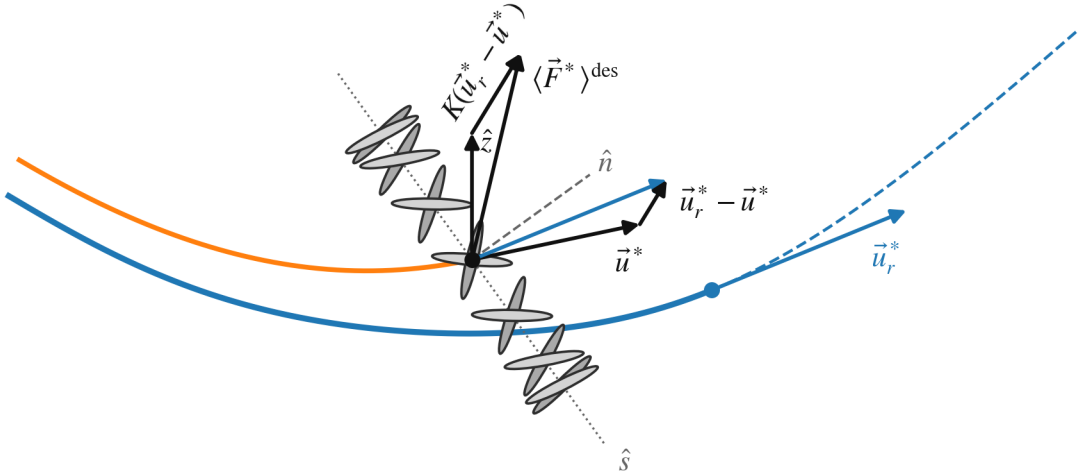


Figure 16: Control-law geometry in the prescribed-trajectory use case. The reference point (dot) travels along the prescribed path (in color, solid where already traveled, dashed ahead) with velocity $\vec{u}_r^*$, the path tangent scaled by the speed schedule. The body is not constrained to the path: with no position feedback it trails the reference, cutting slightly inside the bend, and its velocity $\vec{u}^*$ lags the leveling-off of the path. The reference velocity is copied at the body (in color) to close the velocity triangle, and the force demand of Equation 87 composes, tip to tail, the weight compensation $\hat{z}$ with the amplified error $K(\vec{u}_r^* - \vec{u}^*)$. Wingbeat overlay as in Figure 17, at the blended stroke-plane angle for the drawn $J \approx 0.2$; arrow lengths are schematic.

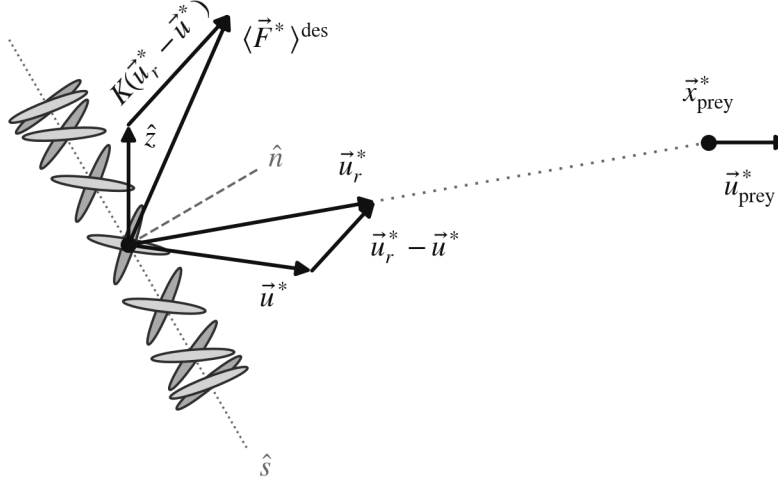


Figure 17: Control-law geometry in the prey pursuit use case. The prey is detected at the line-of-sight bearing $\hat{r}$ (sparse dots), and the reference velocity $\vec{u}_r^* = u_{\text{cmd}}^* \hat{r}$ (Equation 88) points along it, while the body velocity $\vec{u}^*$ lags behind (tail chase, the prey moving along $+\hat{x}$). The velocity error $\vec{u}_r^* - \vec{u}^*$ closes the velocity triangle, and the force demand of Equation 87 composes, tip to tail, the weight compensation $\hat{z}$ with the amplified error $K(\vec{u}_r^* - \vec{u}^*)$. The wingbeat overlay is drawn as in Figure 11, at the blended stroke-plane angle of Equation 90 for the drawn $J \approx 0.2$ ($\gamma \approx -60^\circ$, $\psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$); velocity and force arrow lengths are schematic.

while at cruise speeds ($J \gtrsim 2J_c$) the blend is essentially complete ($f > 0.98$). The sign $\sigma_x \in \{-1, +1\}$ sets the lean of the hover stroke plane (subsection 3.3): it is the sign of the horizontal component of the commanded velocity, $\sigma_x = \text{sgn}(\vec{u}_r^* \cdot \hat{x})$, latched—retaining its previous value whenever $\vec{u}_r^* \cdot \hat{x} = 0$ —and initialized to $+1$. Latching on the commanded rather than the measured velocity keeps the residual drift of station-keeping from flipping the stroke plane. Figure 18 illustrates the schedule in level flight: the stroke plane holds its hover lean near rest, and is nearly velocity-aligned once J exceeds roughly $2J_c$. The schedule is applied unrestricted. In descent, γ_u aims the stroke-plane normal downward, along the fall, and weight support then requires a mean force along $-\hat{n}$: as established in subsection 3.2 (Figure 12), such a reversed force is reached at mean pitch near $\pm 90^\circ$, where drag from the normal inflow dominates, and the trim formulated below (Equation 92) steers there. This is the delicate regime of the scheme—fast descents saturate the trim (section 4)—and it motivates the alternate gliding descent mode discussed in the conclusion. The pitch amplitude is slaved to the force-maximizing value of Figure 13,

$$\psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J) \quad (91)$$

under an assumed axial inflow. The actual inflow deviates from the stroke-plane normal during transients, but only appreciably at low advance ratio, where the optimum is insensitive to the inflow direction, so the deviation is neglected. With (γ, ψ_1) now set, the remaining two variables (s_0^*, ψ_0) are trimmed to the force demand by solving

$$\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle(s_0^*, \psi_0; \gamma, \psi_1, \vec{u}^*) = \langle \vec{F}^* \rangle^{\text{des}} \quad (92)$$

for (s_0^*, ψ_0) . Care must be taken with which force map is inverted here. In Equation 92, $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle$ is the cycle average of the instantaneous force law of section 2, evaluated at the *measured* velocity $\vec{u}^*$ with no assumption

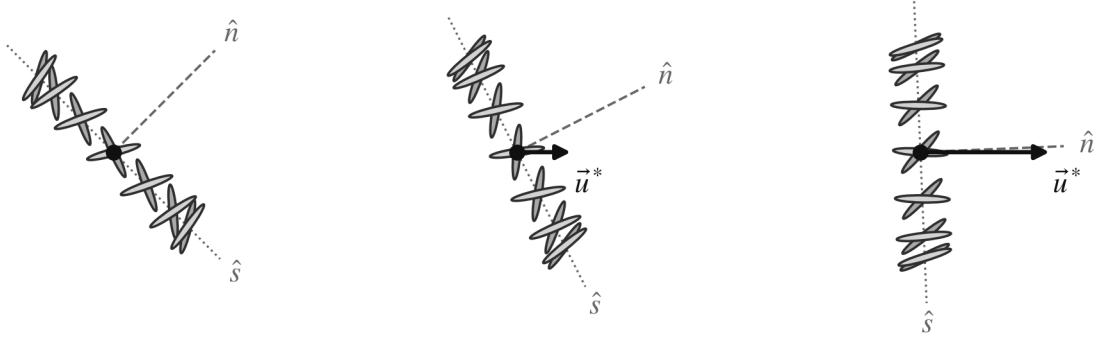


Figure 18: Stroke-plane schedule (Equation 90) in level flight toward $+\hat{x}$ ($\sigma_x = +1$), at increasing advance ratio. At rest (left), the stroke plane holds the inclined-hover lean $\sigma_x \gamma^{\text{hover}}$; as the forward speed builds (middle, right), the blend leans it toward the velocity-aligned value γ_u , at which the stroke-plane normal $\hat{n}$ points along the flight direction and the inflow is axial. The wingbeat overlay is drawn as in Figure 11, with $\psi_1 = \psi_1^{\text{opt}}(J)$; the mean pitch and the velocity arrow lengths are schematic.

on its direction; the trim therefore remains exact during transients, when the inflow is oblique to the stroke plane. The axial-inflow expressions of subsection 3.2 coincide with this map when $\hat{n}$ is aligned with $\vec{u}^*$ —the condition the γ schedule works to restore—and they expose its structure. The two unknowns match the two numbers the planar demand supplies once resolved in the stroke frame: a direction, the signed angle β^{des} from the stroke-plane normal $\hat{n}$ to $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle^{\text{des}}$, and a magnitude $F^{\text{des}} = |\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle^{\text{des}}|$, both known once γ is set. The mean force at the operating point, $\langle \vec{F}^* \rangle = q^* (C_{F_n^*} \hat{n} + C_{F_s^*} \hat{s})$ with the coefficients of Equation 63 and Equation 64, splits these two roles cleanly between the two unknowns. Because J is evaluated at the fixed reference wingbeat velocity, the coefficients are independent of s_0^* , which enters only through the flapping dynamic pressure $q^* \propto (s_0^* \omega^*)^2$ (Equation 38): s_0^* scales the mean force without turning it. The direction β is in turn governed by ψ_0 alone (Equation 68), while the magnitude depends on both unknowns. Equation 92 is therefore triangular, equivalent to the pair

$$\beta(\psi_0; \psi_1, J) = \beta^{\text{des}} \quad q^* C_{F^*}(\psi_0; \psi_1, J) = F^{\text{des}} \quad (93)$$

solved in that order: the direction demand fixes ψ_0 by inverting Equation 68, and the magnitude demand then yields the amplitude explicitly through q^* (Equation 38),

$$s_0^* = \frac{1}{\omega^*} \sqrt{\frac{4F^{\text{des}}}{C_{F^*} \frac{A^*}{m^*}}} \quad (94)$$

with C_{F^*} evaluated at the trimmed pitch. This is the demand-driven generalization of the hover trim of subsection 3.2, recovered when the body is at rest and the demand reduces to the weight: $\beta^{\text{des}} = -\gamma^{\text{hover}}$ returns ψ_0^{hover} , and $F^{\text{des}} = 1$ returns $(s_0^*)^{\text{hover}}$.

In practice, the once-per-wingbeat actuation matches the cycle-averaged nature of Equation 92, and we solve the coupled form rather than the split Equation 93: at the measured velocity, the inflow is generally oblique to the stroke plane, and the advance ratio experienced by the wing varies with s_0^* , re-coupling the pair beyond the axial, frozen- J picture. A damped Newton iteration on the residual of Equation 92, with a finite-difference Jacobian and iterates confined to the admissible kinematic ranges, converges in a handful of steps: the near-triangular structure keeps the system well-conditioned, and each solve is warm-started from the previous wingbeat's (s_0^*, ψ_0) , so the demand moves little between solves. In the constant-pitch limit the split

becomes fully explicit and can initialize—or replace—the iteration, as noted in [subsubsection 3.2.4](#). When the demand leaves the reachable force set, the iteration saturates at the kinematic bounds and the demand is met only approximately; this is the trim saturation encountered in the steep descents of [section 4](#).

Finally, once the commanded reference velocity vanishes (hover, or an exhausted reference trajectory) and the body has settled near rest ($J < 0.05$ in our simulations), γ and ψ_1 are pinned to their hover values $\sigma_x \gamma^{\text{hover}}$ and $\psi_1^{\text{opt}}(0)$, avoiding jitter from the residual hover velocity, while [Equation 92](#) continues to hold hover equilibrium. The pin is seamless: at this threshold the blend is engaged by about 2%, and both schedules sit within a few degrees of their hover values.

4 Results

4.1 Reference Configuration

To ground our results, we introduce a reference configuration based on morphological and wingbeat frequency data for *Anisoptera* from [\[5\]](#) and [\[6\]](#), respectively. Nondimensionalized, the data range is $[0.2, 1.0]$ for A^*/m^* , and $[8, 20]$ for ω^* . For the reference configuration, we select the intermediate values

$$\frac{A^*}{m^*} = 0.6 \quad \omega^* = 14 \quad (95)$$

In addition, we choose the hovering stroke plane angle to be

$$\gamma^{\text{hover}} = -45^\circ \quad (96)$$

defined with a negative sign (clockwise) so that it corresponds to a horizontal dragonfly pointing towards $+\hat{x}$. When settling from lateral motion towards $-\hat{x}$, the hovering stroke plane angle would be $-\gamma^{\text{hover}} = +45^\circ$, as explained in [subsection 3.3](#).

Since dragonflies have two wing pairs, we set $N = 2$, with the two pairs flapping in antiphase (their phase parameters ϕ differing by 180°) so as to reduce body oscillations.

4.2 Hover

The hover regime of the control law is exercised by initializing the body at the origin with a velocity perturbation $\vec{u}^*(0) = (0.2, 0.2)$, and $\vec{u}_r^* = 0$, with $K = 2.7$. The response is shown in [Figure 19](#).

The sensitivity to the single gain is checked by repeating this recovery across a sweep of gains, $KT^* \in [0.2, 2.7]$ ([Figure 20](#)). Below the stability boundary, the discrete model of [subsection 3.4](#) holds well: the measured per-beat contraction of the velocity error follows $1 - KT^*$, with a slightly milder slope—at these gains the velocity changes appreciably *within* a beat, weakening the realized braking relative to the frozen-velocity trim—which places the measured one-beat gain near $KT^* \approx 1.1$ rather than 1. The settling time is U-shaped with its minimum there, staying under one time unit for KT^* between roughly 1 and 1.3, and the accumulated drift follows the discrete prediction $|\vec{u}^*(0)| (1/K - T^*/2)$. The loop remains stable out to $KT^* \approx 2.1$, just past the predicted bound of 2. Two findings round out the picture. First, the trim never saturates across the entire stable range: for a perturbation of this size, the reachable-force ceiling is not the binding constraint. Second, past the stability boundary the growing errors do saturate the trim, and the saturation clamps the divergence into a bounded wandering of a few body lengths rather than an escape. The gain used throughout, $K = 2.7$ ($KT^* \approx 1.2$), sits in the flat basin around the measured one-beat optimum—settling in two wingbeats, with nearly a factor of two of gain margin.

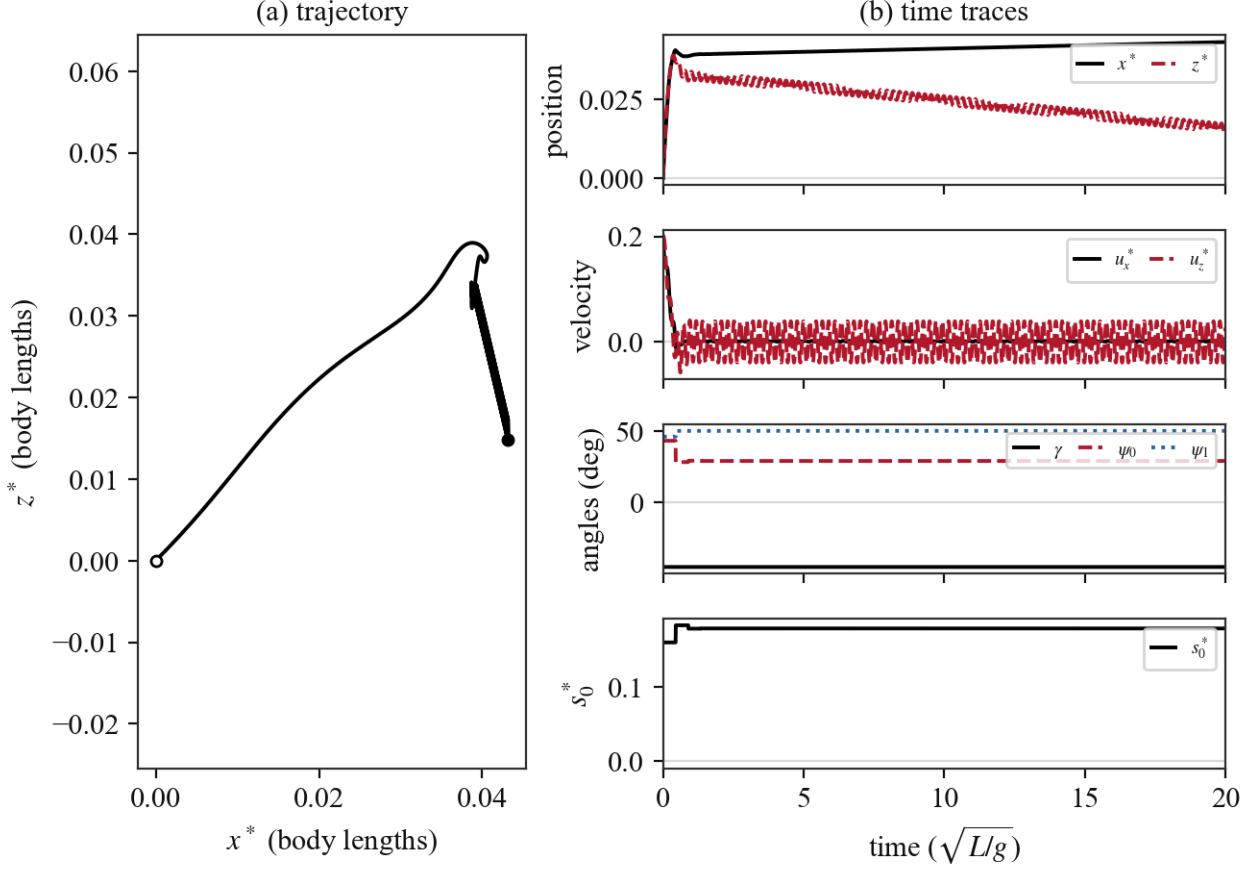


Figure 19: Hover hold under the velocity law (Equation 87, $K = 2.7$). The velocity perturbation is eliminated within about one time unit. The position offset accumulated meanwhile (about 0.05 body lengths) is never corrected—there is no position feedback—and some slow residual drift remains, but the body settles into a clean hover about the settled point.

4.3 Prescribed Trajectory

The reference path is a closed-course test trajectory covering several flight regimes: a level start easing into a 45° climb, a tight self-crossing loop (radius 0.4), a vertical descent of nearly three body lengths, two sharp corners (radius 0.25) framing a level run, and a gentle quarter-turn (radius 1) onto a level finish. The course is assembled from straight lines and tangent circular arcs, with all control vertices on the integer grid, and is traversed with a trapezoidal speed schedule (linear ramps from and to rest over a distance of 0.3, cruise speed 0.5), which together define $\vec{u}_r^*(t)$. The cruise speed is kept moderate because the vertical descent is the demanding segment: at faster descent rates the trim saturates (see the descent caveat in the conclusion). Starting from rest on the path, the tracking response with $K = 2.7$ is shown in Figure 21. A second, freehand test case is shown in Figure 22: a hand-drawn closed course tracing a dragonfly, replayed directly from the recorded drawing—19 body lengths of continuous turns through four wing lobes, a tail sweep, and a head. Its near-vertical plunges into the lower wing lobes are steeper than the descent of the course above and saturate the trim at the same cruise speed, so it is flown at a reduced cruise of 0.4.

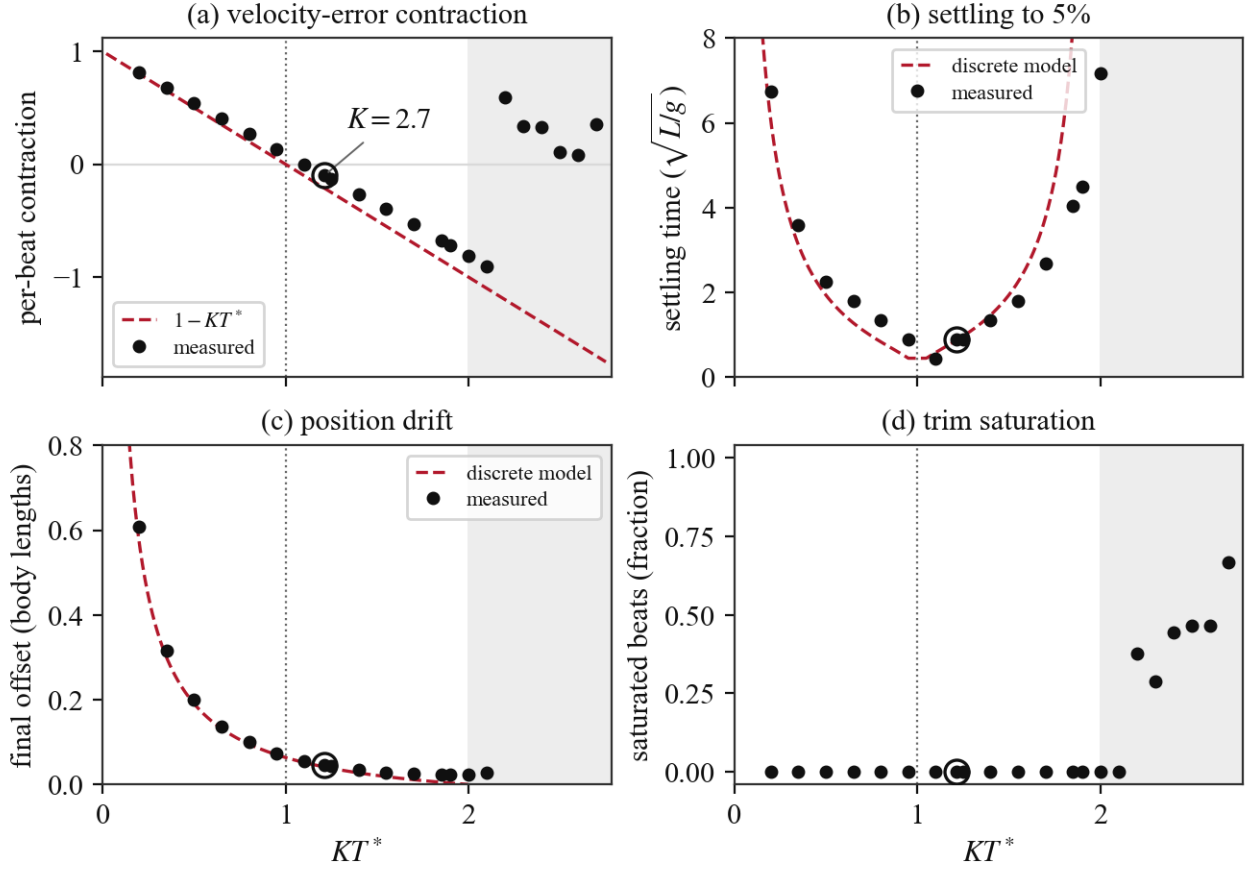


Figure 20: Gain sensitivity of the hover recovery of Figure 19, swept over KT^* (gain $\times$ wingbeat period). Open circle: the gain $K = 2.7$ used throughout; dotted line: the one-beat gain $KT^* = 1$; shaded band: beyond the predicted stability bound $KT^* = 2$. (a) Per-beat contraction of the velocity error (least-squares fit of $\vec{e}_{n+1} = r \vec{e}_n$ over the transient beats), against the discrete-model line $1 - KT^*$; in the unstable band the fit reflects bounded wandering, not contraction. (b) Time for the beat-sampled error to settle below 5% of the perturbation; the last stable gain ($KT^* = 2.1$) settles off scale at 16, and unstable gains never settle. (c) Accumulated position offset, against the discrete prediction $|\vec{u}^*(0)| (1/K - T^*/2)$; unstable gains wander off scale. (d) Fraction of transient beats on which the trim saturates: zero across the stable range, nonzero only past the stability boundary, where the saturation bounds the divergence.

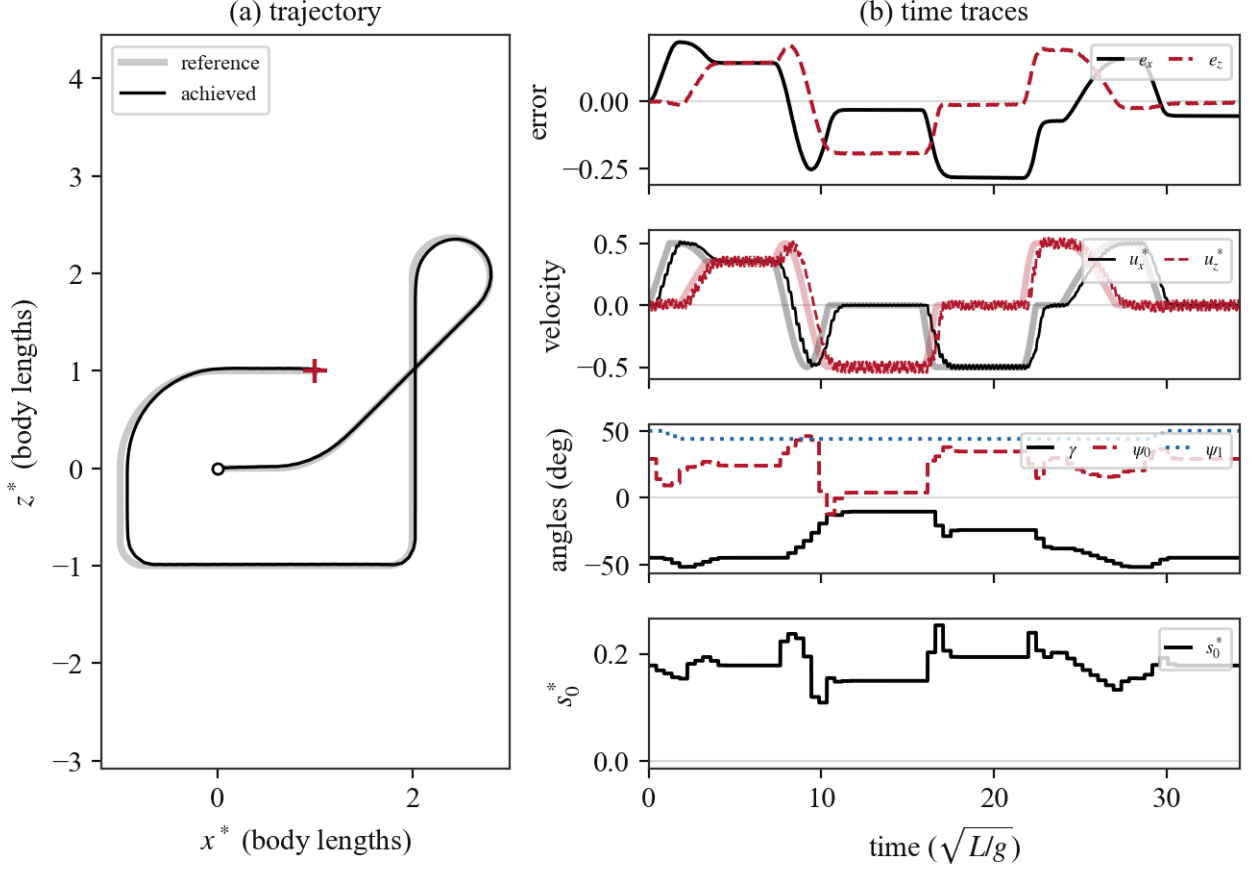


Figure 21: Prescribed trajectory under the velocity law ($K = 2.7$): the body follows the commanded velocity with a first-order lag, trailing the reference point by $|\vec{u}_r^*|/K \approx 0.19$ body lengths through the cruise and cutting slightly inside the sharp corners, with the tracking error peaking at 0.28. Position drift is not corrected, but the achieved path stays close to the course throughout—including the loop and the descent—and the body settles next to the course endpoint (final offset 0.06).

4.4 Prey Pursuit

Prey pursuit closes the guidance loop through the control law with the reference velocity of Equation 88: the desired closing speed along the line of sight to the prey. The prey starts at (2.5, 2.0) and moves at the constant velocity (0.35, 0); the body starts at rest at the origin, with $u_{\text{cmd}}^* = 0.7$ and $K = 2.7$. Interception is declared at a range of 0.5 body lengths. The resulting pursuit is shown in Figure 23.

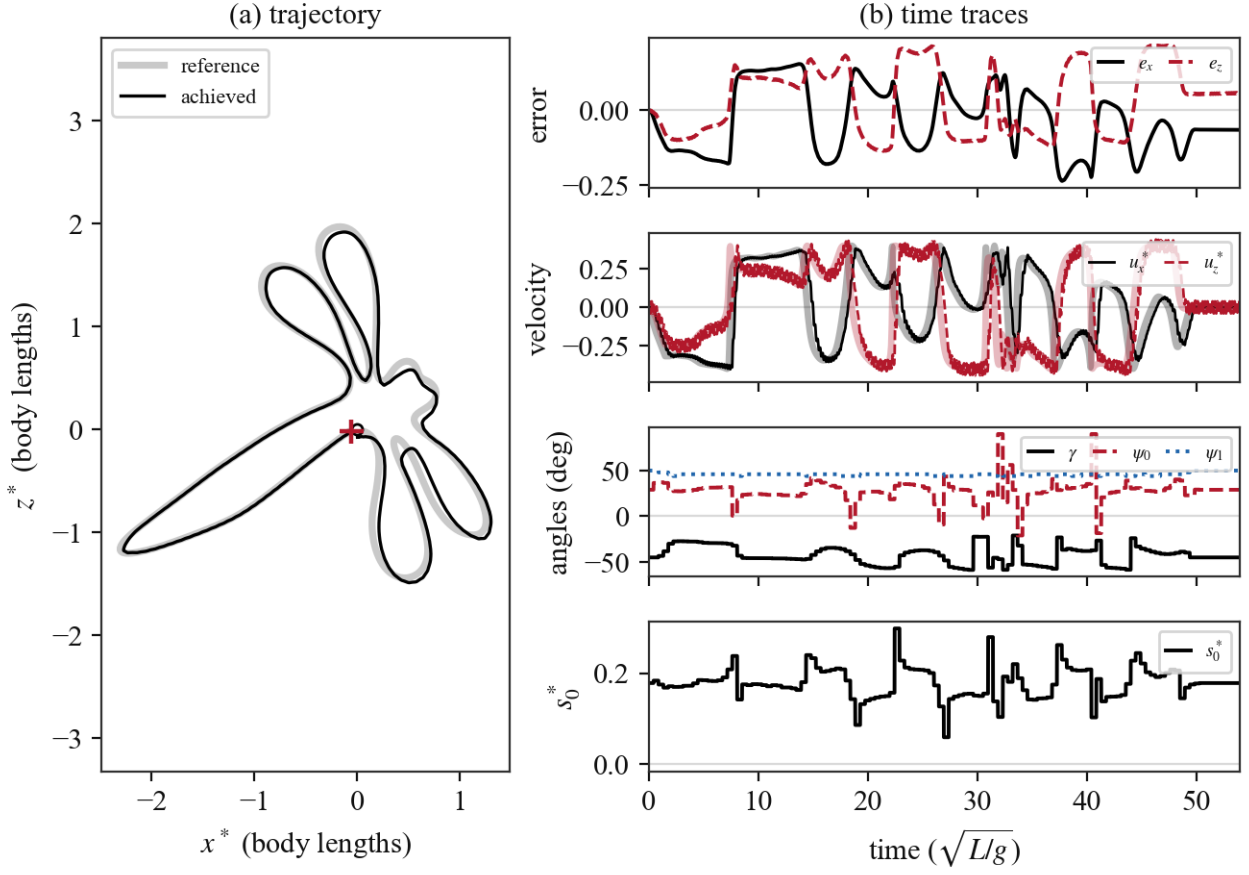


Figure 22: Freehand trajectory under the velocity law ($K = 2.7$, cruise 0.4): a hand-drawn closed course tracing a dragonfly. The body stays within 0.27 body lengths of the reference point throughout and closes the course with a final offset of 0.09.

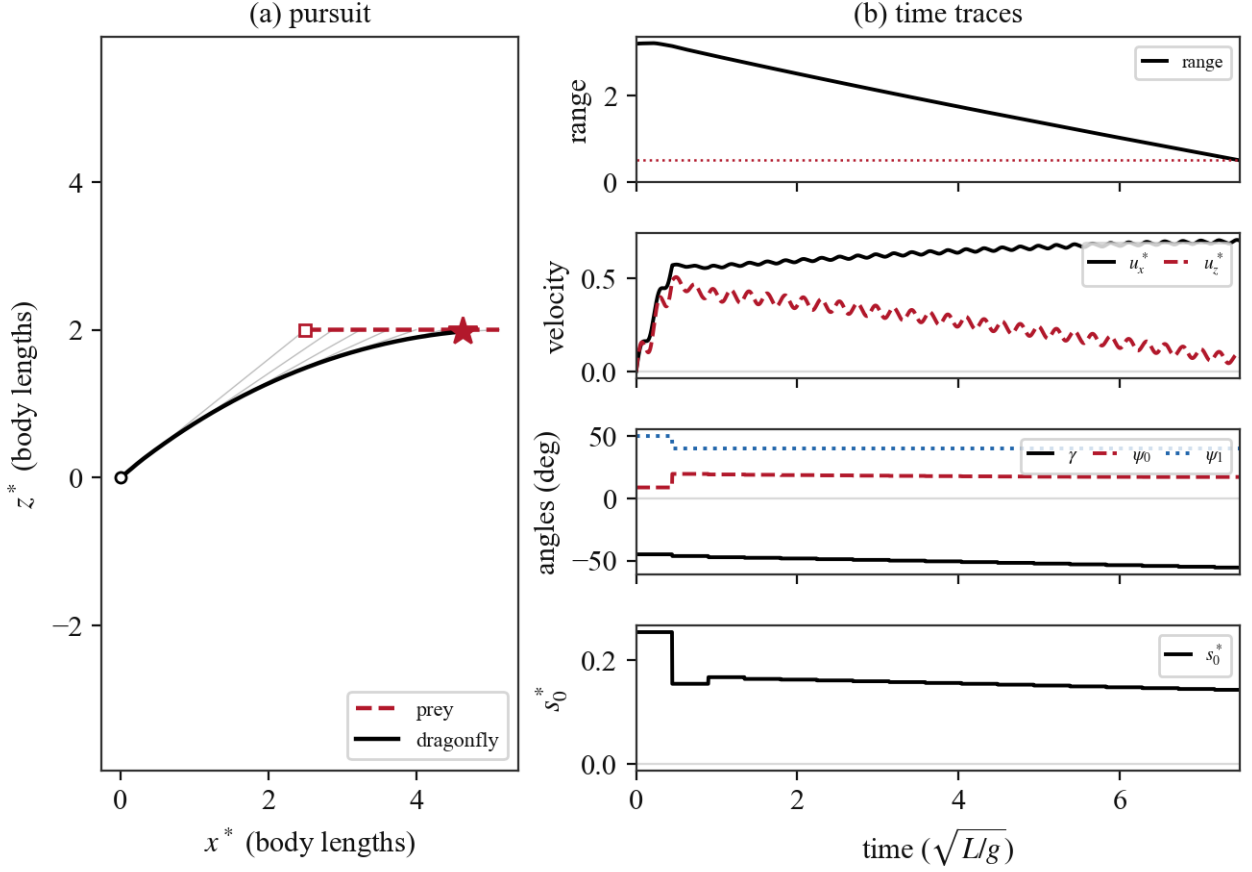


Figure 23: Prey pursuit. (a) The line-of-sight command produces the classical pure-pursuit tail chase, with capture at $t^* \approx 7.5$ (star). (b) The body accelerates to the commanded closing speed ($J \approx 0.2$). γ leans from γ^{hover} toward alignment with the flight direction, ψ_1 follows its slaved schedule (Equation 91), and (s_0^*, ψ_0) trim the force demand.

5 Conclusion

The proposed control scheme is capable of achieving hover and prey pursuit, and of following arbitrary trajectories to a reasonable degree of accuracy. Some caveats are worth mentioning:

- *Not strictly proportional control.* While all control tasks can be achieved with a single proportional gain K in the force demand formulation, the control variables vary nonlinearly with the force demand, since we are solving the inverse problem of which variable values satisfy the force demand. Following the hover controller presented in the previous report, we may be able to resolve this by linearizing the force, using the expressions we derived in [subsection 3.2](#).
- *Issue with descent.* When descending (towards $-\hat{z}$) at a fast rate, the stroke-plane normal will point downwards. However, to achieve a steady descent velocity, the force vector must point up, opposed to gravity. The force vector, then, must point toward $-\hat{n}$. This can be achieved as we saw in [subsection 3.2](#) with large enough $|\psi_0|$, but at high J it results in large force magnitudes which lead to instability in the unsteady dynamics, and prevent clean descent trajectories. This could potentially be addressed with an alternate control mode using gliding instead of flapping to achieve steady descent. Note that descent is not as problematic if the commanded trajectory has a sustained downward acceleration larger than that due to gravity, since the requirement that the force oppose gravity does not hold.

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